Commemorating and Remembering 1857: The Revolt in Delhi and Its Afterlife

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纪念与记忆 1857：德里起义及其后续生命

English original
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中文译文
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Abstract

摘要

English original
This study examines the physical impact of the 1857 revolt against British rule in India, in one of the most crucial arenas of resistance - the Delhi region of north India. This was a consequence, on the one hand, of the destruction, demolition and confiscation that took place in the city and also in some of Delhi's villages, during and in the aftermath of the revolt. On the other hand, equally transforming was the British commemoration of their victory, which resulted in the construction of a memorialized landscape by them, around the graves of dead soldiers and the scenes of military action. At the same time, part of what was destroyed and constructed in those tumultuous years had a rich afterlife, which saw an elaboration and reshaping of the landscape of remembrance, both by the 'victorious' and also by the 'conquered'.

中文译文
本文考察 1857 年印度反英起义在最关键的抵抗区域之一——北印度德里地区——造成的物质影响。一方面，这种影响来自起义期间及其后，德里城内以及德里部分村庄发生的破坏、拆除和没收；另一方面，英国人对自身胜利的纪念同样深刻地改变了城市，他们围绕阵亡士兵的墓地和军事行动发生地点建构起一套纪念化景观。与此同时，那些动荡年代里被毁坏或新建的部分事物，也获得了丰富的“后续生命”：无论“胜利者”还是“被征服者”，都在此后不断扩展并重塑这片记忆景观。

Keywords

关键词

English original
India; Delhi; 1857 Revolt; warfare; commemoration.

中文译文
印度；德里；1857 年起义；战争；纪念。

Introduction

引言

English original

Delhi, the focus of the treason and revolt which for four months have harassed Hindustan, and the stronghold in which the mutinous army of Bengal has sought to concentrate its power, has been wrested from the rebels. (Canning 1857a)

中文译文

“德里——四个月来困扰整个印度斯坦的叛国与起义中心，也是孟加拉叛军试图集中其力量的堡垒——已经从叛军手中夺回。”（Canning 1857a）

English original

In the Indian summer of 1857, a sepoy mutiny broke out in Meerut (some 50 kilometres north-east of Delhi), which was the headquarters of a division of the Bengal army. In less than a day, by the early hours of the morning of 11 May, the Meerut mutineers, crossing the bridge of boats on the Yamuna river, reached Delhi. The garrison there, almost immediately, revolted, many British residents were massacred and Bahadur Shah II, the Mughal king who resided in Delhi, accepted the nominal leadership of the rebellion. This acted as a catalyst for other revolts and, in the following days and months, there were outbreaks in stations across north and central India. As it spread, the army revolt was transformed into a popular uprising as peasants, local notables and urban groups, cutting across castes and creeds, joined together to fight firanghi (foreigner) rule. In the intensely fought military campaigns, however, superior tactics and organization eventually triumphed. British authority was re-established with ruthless force by the end of 1858, in Delhi as early as September 1857. As a consequence of the rebellion, the East India Company was abolished and India came to be directly administered by the British Crown. Surmises about whether the mutiny was triggered by the fear of religious pollution from the animal grease on the cartridges of the new Enfield rifle, speculations concerning the social and economic reasons for the civil rebellion, and also the diametrically different perspectives on how this major moment of dislocation ought to be characterized, has generated a vast and impressive literature (for an annotated bibliography of such writings, see Jain 1998). The intention of this essay, though, is more limited. Its focus is on the physical impact of the revolt in the city of Delhi. This has been studied through a field survey of what are generally described as 'mutiny' sites and monuments in north Delhi, along with the archival sources, especially those files of the Archaeological Survey of India and the office of the Deputy Commissioner of Delhi that deal with monuments and their status in the aftermath of the revolt. While the historic remains of several Delhis lie scattered across the long narrow strip of country running along the right bank of the Yamuna river, the geographical nucleus of the 1857 events was much smaller. It was largely concentrated in and around Shahjahanabad, the roughly 6400 acres enclosed by a wall and built as the Mughal capital by Emperor Shah Jahan in the seventeenth century, and that section of the rocky eminence of the Aravallis, known as the northern Ridge, where the British cantonments were located. The revolt here and the city's defence by the rebels did not last long, a little more than four months. Yet, this was a crucial arena of resistance in more ways than one. That practically all other uprisings followed the liberation of Delhi suggests that the expulsion of the British from the city was understood as signalling the breakdown of their authority. From the British perspective as well, the recovery of Delhi was thought to be crucial because they believed that if they conquered it without loss of time 'the rest of India might be saved' (Sen 1957: 77). Above all, the revolt was a major watershed in terms of urban morphology and transformed the city's terrain. This was the result, on the one hand, of the destruction of what each perceived to be the political stronghold of the 'other' and, in the aftermath of the British conquest, of the construction of a remembered past around sites where the rebellion was fought. There was, however, a qualitative difference in the manner in which the revolt was memorialized. While the British commemoration of their victory was deliberate, creating as it were, a palpable 'landscape of heroism and conquest' that can be archaeologically located, hardly any physical traces of the resistance offered by Delhi's residents exist. A populace that has been brutally suppressed cannot be expected either to commemorate sites of resistance or to set up memorials. At the same time, much of what was destroyed and constructed in the aftermath of the revolt also had an afterlife. There were shifts in monument usage, architectural alterations and epigraphic additions, which in turn are connected with attitudinal changes within the British Raj and subcontinental contestations. It is this which allows us to view the memorialized arena as being an ensemble both of its construction chronology and of its reception history. This is important for other reasons as well. For instance, it is primarily through the contestation of the landscape of revolt that the Indian state's remembrance can be archaeologically recovered. A more positive invocation of the Delhi rebels and their resistance, however, has not taken place, a 'monumental' amnesia which demands scrutiny, since various other commemorative monuments have sprung up in the city. The purpose of this paper, therefore, is as much to discuss those aspects of social memory that came to be archaeologically inscribed and those which have remained uncommemorated.

中文译文

1857 年印度的夏季，在德里东北约 50 公里、孟加拉军一支师部所在地密拉特（Meerut），士兵兵变爆发。不到一天，到 5 月 11 日清晨，密拉特兵变者渡过亚穆纳河上的浮桥抵达德里。当地驻军几乎立刻起义，大批英国居民遭到杀害；居住在德里的莫卧儿皇帝巴哈杜尔·沙二世接受了名义上的起义领导权。这一事件成为其他起义的催化剂，此后数日和数月间，印度北部和中部多个驻地相继发生动乱。随着运动扩展，军队兵变逐渐…… ……转化为一场民众起义：农民、地方名流和城市群体跨越种姓与宗教界线，共同反抗 firanghi（外国人）的统治。然而，在激烈的军事行动中，更优越的战术和组织最终取得胜利。到 1858 年底，英国以残酷武力重新确立权威；在德里，这一过程早在 1857 年 9 月就已完成。起义之后，东印度公司被撤销，印度改由英国王室直接统治。关于兵变是否由新式恩菲尔德步枪弹药上动物油脂引发的宗教污染恐惧所触发，关于民众起义的社会经济原因，以及关于究竟应如何界定这一重大断裂时刻的截然不同观点，已经产生了数量庞大而丰富的研究文献（相关著作的注释书目见 Jain 1998）。不过，本文的目的较为有限，重点讨论起义对德里城市物质空间造成的影响。研究材料包括对北德里通常被称为“兵变”遗址和纪念物的实地调查，以及档案资料，尤其是印度考古调查局与德里副专员办公室中有关纪念物及其在起义后状况的文件。虽然历史上多个“德里”的遗迹散布在亚穆纳河右岸狭长的地带上，但 1857 年事件的地理核心要小得多，主要集中在沙贾汉纳巴德及其周边——这是 17 世纪沙贾汗皇帝修建的莫卧儿都城，城墙内约 6400 英亩——以及阿拉瓦利山脉岩石高地中被称为“北部山脊”（northern Ridge）的区域，英国兵营设在那里。这里的起义以及起义者对城市的防守只持续了四个多月，但它在多重意义上都是一个关键的抵抗空间。几乎所有其他起义都发生在德里获得解放之后，这说明把英国人逐出德里被理解为英国权威崩溃的信号。英国方面同样认为收复德里至关重要，因为他们相信，只要迅速夺回这座城市，“印度其余地区或许就能得救”（Sen 1957: 77）。更重要的是，起义成为城市形态的一个重大分水岭，改变了德里的地貌。一方面，双方分别摧毁了自己眼中“对方”的政治堡垒；另一方面，在英国征服之后，人们又围绕起义战斗发生的地点建构起一套“被记住的过去”。不过，起义被纪念的方式存在质的差异。英国人有意识地纪念自己的胜利，创造出一套可以在考古意义上定位的、清晰可见的“英雄主义与征服景观”；相比之下，德里居民抵抗英国的物质痕迹几乎不存在。遭到残酷镇压的人群显然无从纪念自己的抵抗地点，也无力树立纪念碑。与此同时，起义之后被破坏或建造的许多事物也拥有后续生命：纪念物的用途发生变化，建筑被改造，铭文被增添；这些变化又与英属印度内部态度的变化以及南亚次大陆上的争议相联系。因此，这片纪念化空间既可以从其建造年代序列来理解，也可以从其接受史来理解。这一点还具有其他意义。 例如，印度国家自身的记忆，主要正是通过围绕“起义景观”的争夺才能在考古层面被恢复出来。然而，对德里起义者及其抵抗作出更积极的纪念却并未真正发生；考虑到城中此后出现了其他各种纪念碑，这种“纪念碑式的失忆”尤其值得审视。因此，本文既要讨论那些已经被考古性地刻写进空间的社会记忆，也要讨论那些始终没有得到纪念的记忆。

Destruction and demolition in Delhi

德里的破坏与拆除

English original

For more than half a century before the revolt, from 1803 onwards, while the administration of Delhi was in the name of the Mughal monarch who resided there, his jurisdiction remained limited to his palace - the Lal Qil'ah or Red Fort. The British had become the masters of Delhi - administering justice, collecting revenue, repairing its fortifications, improving the city's sanitary arrangements, and maintaining peace and order (Gupta 1981: 4-20; also see Frykenberg 1993). So, when the revolt broke out in 1857, the rebels squarely targeted such symbols of British authority: the pattern of killings, loot, and plunder suggests this. 'Property owned, used or lived in by the firanghi' (Mukherjee 2001: 71) was attacked and looted - the Delhi Bank in the Chandni Chowk, houses of Europeans in localities like Daryaganj and the Kashmir bazaar, Metcalfe House where Theophilus Metcalfe, the

Joint Magistrate, lived, and the British army cantonments were some of them. Bulwarks of British power were also taken over: the treasury which was plundered and its contents surrendered to the King, the jail whose prisoners were all released, and the Main Guard which was captured by mutinous soldiers (Haq 1968:119). Controlling the Main Guard was important because it stood adjacent to the Kashmiri gate, which was the most important exit point connecting the walled city and the Ridge where the cantonments were located. The rebels attempted to seize the contents of the powder magazines as well, but in this they were only partially successful (Haq 1968: 123). While the walls of the smaller one inside the city, known as the Expense magazine (with fifty barrels of powder), were being scaled, it was blown up by the English staff. On the other hand, the main powder magazine, containing more than 1,000 barrels of powder, which was situated outside the city walls, on the bank of the Yamuna river, was successfully captured. Church property too was attacked, fuelled by the belief that the British were bent on destroying Hinduism and Islam through the propagation of Christianity. The most visible symbol of this was the first church built in 1837 in Delhi, that of St James. Although the building was not seriously damaged, it was 'plundered by a wild and screaming mob that bore away all its contents down to the chairs, stools and hassocks and rang the bells in mockery before cutting them loose so that they fell through the tower to the floor' (Hibbert 1978: 99). The cross and the gilded ball which adorned the top of the dome of the church were repeatedly fired at 'in the hope that by their fall might be ensured the expulsion of the English' (Hearn 1906: 5). A few tombs in the church complex were also vandalized, including a handsome one which Colonel James Skinner in 1835 had himself had erected over the remains of William Fraser, formerly Major of Skinner's horse and a resident of the city. As for the Baptist Mission of Delhi, it was totally destroyed, and two of its British ministers were killed, as was the first 'leading' Indian resident of the city who had been converted by the mission, Dr Chaman Lal (Gazetteer of the Delhi District 1884:58). Details about this violence can be multiplied not merely from Delhi but from those areas where it was replicated, in the Meerut cantonment before Delhi (Palmer 1966: 88ff.) and, afterwards, in various stations in Awadh (Mukherjee 2001: 71ff.). What I want to underline, however, is simply this: instead of labelling it as mindless mob fury, as several commentators have done, it is possible to detect a 'method' in the 'madness' that accompanied the revolt. As the definitive work on the revolt in Awadh puts it, 'the sepoys saw in the Raj an entity and structure that was intervening in their way of life and they frontally assaulted and destroyed the proximate symbols of that structure' (Mukherjee 2001: 71). If the attacks on and the capture of buildings that symbolized the British presence in Delhi are to be understood as a means by which the rebels publicly underlined their victory, what was the 'purpose' in the orgy of violence unleashed by the British troops as they captured the city? This happened in September 1857 when four military columns simultaneously attacked the city. All through the siege of Delhi, the British soldiers on the Ridge, which they had recaptured in June, had kept their morale high by dreaming of the moment when they would attack and loot '"a nice diamond or two" from the "rich old niggers"' (Gupta 1981: 21). Naturally, when the city was stormed, there was widespread plunder and destruction, especially since three days of unrestricted loot were 'allowed' to the Army (Haq 1968: 232). After three days, plundering assumed a different shape: the property of Delhi residents came to be legally treated as prize and official digging tickets were given to specially appointed Prize Agents. Armed with these and with 'guides, coolies, pickaxes, shovels, tape-measures, crowbars, and iron sounding-rods, officers, civilians and their wives went out on treasure-hunts all over the city' (Hibbert 1978: 320). This official search for and appropriation of private property ended only in December 1857. Whether the plundering was officially sanctioned or indiscriminately done, the whole city came to be treated as legitimate spoil. Following the example of medieval invaders who had marked their victory over the Mughals by carrying off treasure from their palace, British soldiers plundered whatever they could find in the Red Fort - portable artefacts, ranging from the jewels, weapons and the clothes of royal family to in situ marble slabs and inlay work. While the copper gilt domes of the Hall of Special Audience (Diwan'i Khas), the Musamman Burj and the Pearl Mosque (Moti Masjid) were sold by auction (Hearn 1906: 14), property worth Rs 10,000 was dug out of the Sriramji temple by the Prize Agents (Sen 1957: 114). Elsewhere in the city too, soldiers and officers were equally thorough. One of them, Captain Griffiths, recounted: We entered several of the large houses belonging to the wealthier class of natives and found every one in the same condition, turned inside out, their ornaments torn to pieces, costly articles, too heavy to remove, battered into fragments.... To my certain knowledge many soldiers of the English regiments got possession of jewellery and gold ornaments taken from the bodies of the slain city inhabitants, and I was shown by men of my regiment strings of pearls and gold mohurs which had fallen into their hands. (cited in Hibbert 1978: 319) Much of this treasure became the property of those who had discovered it, mementos of their victory over the 'enemy'. This was especially common among those who had become fugitives after the revolt in Delhi. The family of George Wagentreiber, who worked at the Delhi Gazette, for instance, had escaped from their house outside the city walls in May 1857 and had fled to Karnal. But they soon returned, with Wagentreiber being appointed as one of the agents of the 'Delhi Prize'. Eventually their house outside Delhi was rebuilt, filled, as one of them recounted, 'from floor to ceiling with all the wonderful things collected in those eventful days' (cited in Hibbert 1978: 320). The Delhi loot also reached England, since a large number of British non-commissioned officers and soldiers bought their discharge following the end of the revolt. Just as in the early part of the nineteenth century, 'colony-returned' British gentlemen carried back historic artefacts as mementos of their Indian experience, now 'mutiny' veterans brought home their trophies of conquest. Several such trophies found their way into British museums. Among the most famous of these were the rare pietra dura panels that formed the backdrop to the throne of the emperor

in the Hall of General Audience (Diwan'i Am) in the Red Fort (Plate 1). The pilfered panels included the top central one, an Italian product, which depicted Orpheus playing his lute and wild animals seated before him. These had been taken away by Captain John Jones in 1857 and were bought by the British government for 500 pounds

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在起义前半个多世纪里，自 1803 年起，德里名义上仍由居住于此的莫卧儿君主管理，但其实际管辖权已经局限在自己的宫殿——拉尔基拉（Lal Qil'ah），即红堡——之内。英国人已经成为德里的真正统治者：他们执行司法、征收税收、修缮城防、改善城市卫生，并维持治安（Gupta 1981: 4-20；另见 Frykenberg 1993）。因此，1857 年起义爆发时，起义者直接攻击英国权威的这些象征；杀戮、抢劫和掠夺的模式都说明了这一点。“由 firanghi［外国人］拥有、使用或居住的财产”（Mukherjee 2001: 71）遭到攻击和洗劫，包括月光集市（Chandni Chowk）的德里银行、达里亚甘杰和克什米尔市场等地的欧洲人住宅、联合行政长官 Theophilus Metcalfe 居住的 Metcalfe House，以及英国军营。英国权力的其他堡垒也被夺取：国库遭到洗劫，财物交给国王；监狱中的犯人全部被释放；Main Guard 也被兵变士兵占领（Haq 1968: 119）。控制 Main Guard 很重要，因为它紧邻克什米尔门，而克什米尔门是连接城墙内城区与英国军营所在山脊的最重要出口。起义者还试图夺取火药库，但只取得部分成功（Haq 1968: 123）。城内较小的一座火药库称为 Expense Magazine，储有五十桶火药；当起义者攀上围墙时，英国守军自行将其炸毁。相比之下，位于城墙外、亚穆纳河岸、储有一千多桶火药的主火药库则被起义者成功夺取。教会财产也遭到攻击，因为人们相信英国人企图通过传播基督教来摧毁印度教与伊斯兰教。最显眼的象征，是德里第一座建于 1837 年的教堂圣詹姆斯教堂。建筑本身并未遭到严重破坏，但“一个狂呼尖叫的人群洗劫了它，从椅子、凳子到跪垫，所有东西都被搬走；他们还嘲弄地敲响钟声，然后割断钟绳，让钟从塔上坠落到地面”（Hibbert 1978: 99）。教堂圆顶顶部的十字架和镀金圆球也被反复射击，人们“希望它们倒下便能确保英国人被驱逐”（Hearn 1906: 5）。教堂院内几座墓也遭到破坏，其中包括 James Skinner 上校 1835 年为 William Fraser 遗骸修建的一座美观墓葬；Fraser 曾任 Skinner's Horse 部队少校，也是德里居民。 至于德里的浸礼会传教站，则被彻底摧毁，两名英国传教士被杀；最早接受该传教会改宗、且在城中颇有地位的印度居民 Chaman Lal 医生也遭杀害（Gazetteer of the Delhi District 1884: 58）。这类暴力并不只见于德里；在德里之前的密拉特军营（Palmer 1966: 88ff.），以及后来奥德多个驻地（Mukherjee 2001: 71ff.）都出现过类似情形。不过，我要强调的很简单：与其像一些评论者那样把这些行为视为毫无理性的暴民狂怒，不如说，起义中的“疯狂”其实存在一种“方法”。正如关于奥德起义的一部权威研究所说：“士兵把 Raj［英国统治］看作一个正在干预其生活方式的实体和结构，于是他们正面攻击并摧毁这一结构最直接可见的象征”（Mukherjee 2001: 71）。如果起义者攻击、占领象征英国在德里存在的建筑，是公开展示胜利的方式，那么，当英国军队重新夺取城市时所释放的暴力狂潮又具有怎样的“目的”？ 1857 年 9 月，四支军队纵队同时进攻德里。整个围城期间，自 6 月重新占据山脊后，英国士兵一直靠想象攻城后从“有钱的老黑鬼”那里抢到“一两颗漂亮钻石”来维持士气（Gupta 1981: 21）。因此，城市被攻破时出现大规模抢掠与破坏并不意外，尤其因为军方还“允许”三天不受限制的劫掠（Haq 1968: 232）。三天之后，抢掠又采取了另一种形式：德里居民的财产在法律上被视为战利品，专门任命的 Prize Agents 获得官方挖掘许可证。军官、文官及其妻子带着这些许可证，以及“向导、苦力、镐、铲子、卷尺、撬棍和铁制探杆，走遍整座城市寻宝”（Hibbert 1978: 320）。这种由官方主持的私人财产搜寻和占有直到 1857 年 12 月才结束。无论抢掠是得到官方授权还是无差别进行，整座城市都被视为合法战利品。仿效中世纪征服者以从莫卧儿宫殿夺走珍宝来标记胜利的做法，英国士兵在红堡中见什么拿什么：从皇室珠宝、武器、服饰，到原地的石灰石板和镶嵌装饰都未能幸免。特别觐见殿（Diwan'i Khas）、Musamman Burj 和珍珠清真寺（Moti Masjid）的镀铜穹顶被拍卖（Hearn 1906: 14）；Prize Agents 还从 Sriramji 寺庙中挖出价值一万卢比的财物（Sen 1957: 114）。在城内其他地方，士兵与军官也同样彻

底。其中一位 Griffiths 上尉回忆道：“我们进入几座属于较富裕本地人的大房子，发现每一座都一个样：房屋被翻得底朝天，装饰物被撕碎，那些太重而搬不走的昂贵物品则被砸成碎片……据我确知，许多英国团士兵得到了从被杀城市居民尸体上取下的珠宝和黄金饰物；我自己也看见本团士兵向我展示他们得到的一串串珍珠和金币。”（引自 Hibbert 1978: 319） 这些珍宝中很大一部分最终成为发现者自己的财产，被当作战胜“敌人”的纪念品。这种情况在那些德里起义后曾经逃难的人中尤其常见。例如，在《Delhi Gazette》任职的 George Wagentreiber 一家于 1857 年 5 月逃出城墙外的住宅，避往 Karnal；但他们很快返回，而 Wagentreiber 后来还被任命为“Delhi Prize”的代理人之一。最终，他们在德里城外的房屋重建起来；据家中一人回忆，屋内“从地板到天花板都堆满了那些多事日子里收集到的奇珍异物”（引自 Hibbert 1978: 320）。德里的战利品也流入英国，因为起义结束后，大批英国士官和士兵购买退役资格回国。就像 19 世纪初从殖民地回国的英国绅士会带回历史文物作为印度经历的纪念一样，“兵变”老兵现在也把征服战利品带回家。其中一些后来进入英国博物馆。最著名的一批，是红堡大众觐见殿（Diwan'i Am）皇帝宝座背后稀有的 pietra dura 硬石镶嵌板（图版 1）。被掠走的镶嵌板包括顶部中央的一块意大利作品，图案是俄耳甫斯弹奏鲁特琴、野兽围坐聆听。这些板件 1857 年被 John Jones 上尉带走，后来英国政府以 500 英镑购回。

English original

Plate 1 The pietra dura panels of the Hall of Genera Jones in 1857 and restored in 1903. Photograph: Archa 1 and 2,1914-15).

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图版 1：大众觐见殿（Diwan'i Am）的硬石镶嵌板。1857 年被 Jones 上尉掠走，1903 年恢复原位。照片：印度考古调查局，Delhi Album（第 1、2 卷，1914-15）。

English original

when Jones returned to England. They soon became part of the collection of Indian artefacts in the Kensington Museum (now known as the Victoria & Albert Museum). The sack of Delhi was one aspect of the impact that this violent confrontation had on the material culture of the city. Its intentional 'desacralization' (Cohn 1987: 646) was the other aspect, as the original functions and layouts of some of the most important buildings and city quarters were deliberately altered. The Red Fort, the symbol of the city's resistance, was brutally metamorphosed. Major clearances were made in its interior, the object of which 'was to open out wholesome space for occupation of the Fort by European Barracks and the other regiments of the garrison' (Secretary Punjab 1863). Many buildings of 'minor' value, which could not be profitably used or were deemed as unworthy of being preserved, were demolished. The grounds were also levelled and the debris from these clearances was used to form the glacis around the Fort walls. Barracks were constructed in large parts of the Fort while historic buildings were converted to suit the functions of the garrison there. Officers were quartered in the drum house (Naqar Khana), the Zafar Mahal was used as a bath for soldiers while wooden doors and iron gratings were put up in the Hall of General Audience (Diwan'i Am). Cookhouses, privies, and urinals were built in various parts of the historic complex, near the Zafar Mahal, in the Hayat Baksh garden itself and also west of the Sawan and Bhadon pavilions (Marshall 1902). The changes outside the Fort were even more dramatic and involved the clearance of buildings within a 450-yard limit from its walls. A vivid visual evocation of the surgical demolition that this involved can be had by comparing the photographs taken by Felice Beato in 1858, before the clearances, with how it presently appears (see Masselos and Gupta 2000: 20ff.). As those photographs show, an unfortunate casualty was the seventeenth-century Akbarabadi mosque, built by and named after one of Emperor Shah Jahan's wives. Historic markets such as the Urdu bazaar and the Khas bazaar, through which the emperor had proceeded in state to the Jama Masjid on feast days, and also squares like the one named after S'a-ad-ullah Khan, the prime minister of Shah Jahan, were razed. This was apparently done for military reasons, to remove what was described as 'dangerous cover' but, as Gupta caustically observes, 'what the Government decided was necessary for its security led to some of the loveliest buildings of the city being destroyed'. Fortunately, a small elegant mosque, the Sunehri Masjid, near the Delhi Gate of the palace, escaped demolition, apparently because it offered very little 'cover' (Deputy Commissioner 1871). What also survived was the Dariba, a locality which fell within the 500 hundred yards radius from which buildings had to be cleared. It was retained because it was thought to be impolitic to alienate its Hindu merchants and shopkeepers, who had petitioned Governor General Canning (Secretary 1860). In order to prevent the demolition of the Dariba, the radius of clearance around the fort was reduced to 450 yards. Intentional desacralization was writ large over the city mosques as well. Although Sunehri Masjid had not been

demolished, it was confiscated by the British government because it formed part of the precincts of the royal buildings. Within a short distance from the Fort stood the Jama Masjid, the largest congregational mosque of Delhi. Officially closed down for public worship, for a short while it was placed at the disposal of Sikh soldiers - to be used as barracks by them. South of the Fort, the Zinat-ul-Masjid was confiscated by the military authorities (Plate 2). One of the most impressive mosques in the city, it was converted into a bakery for troops by the Commissariat Department. Unsightly additions were subsequently made to it so that it could also be partly used as a dwelling house (Officer 1890). Another kind of desecration took place at the Fatehpuri mosque which lay towards the western end of Chandni Chowk. The mosque was confiscated and its shops and quadrangle were sold, in public auction, to Chunna Mal, one of the richest Hindu bankers of the city. The rooms opening into its quadrangle, meant for students of religious books, were converted into shops by the new proprietor (Deputy Commissioner 1877). The Sadruddin mosque in the Sabzi mandi (vegetable market) area was similarly treated. This masjid and the garden where it stood belonged to Maulvi Sadruddin Khan but were sold, Plate 2 Zinat'ul Masjid in 1858. Photograph: Archaeological Survey of India, Delhi Album (Vol. 5, 1932-7). after the revolt, as confiscated property, to one Jauhari Mal. It was later occupied as a dwelling house by a 'European' (Deputy Commissioner 1877). Retribution was not confined to the walled city. As a penal measure, large numbers of plots of agricultural land from as many as thirty-three villages of the Delhi district were confiscated: Alipur, Chandrawal, Kotla Mubarakpur, Mehrauli, Indraprastha, Palam, Raisina, and Wazirabad are some of them (Gupta 1981: 31). While the cause of confiscation of the land of Chandrawal was that the village had plundered the cantonments, the land of Alipur village was confiscated because its proprietors had 'plundered the high road during the war' (Temple 1858). The confiscated rural property was large - in Chandrawal, two-thirds of the land of the village was confiscated, while at Wazirpur and Alipur, more than half the village lands were taken away. Such measures transformed Delhi's social geography, it was alleged that a great deal of this land was given as reward for 'loyal service' or was bought by persons who were not the residents of the villages. When this campaign of confiscation and demolition was finally over, what remained was a battered and mutilated city. The victorious British forces had virtually treated the entire population as culpable of treason and had ensured that their punishment left a lasting physical impact. There was very little that a conquered populace could do except remember and lament, frequently in ways that cannot be easily recognized from material cultural evidence. A poignant reminder of this comes from the experience of a missionary who, on one occasion, instructed his class of catechists to write an essay on the Mutiny, in response to which every youth submitted a sheet of blank paper. 'It was a silent, unanimous and unapologetic refusal to perform the task' (Thompson 1926: 120). While this strongly invokes the bitter memory of the revolt and substantiates Thompson's observation that 'at the back of the mind of many an Indian the mutiny flits as he talks with an Englishman - an unavenged and unappeased ghost' (1926: 30), social remembrance in such situations rarely leaves behind material traces. Such remembrance does, however, occasionally attach itself to the landscape of events. And so, since the revolt, the stone vaulted gateway which stands south of the walled city of Delhi, opposite Firoz Shah Kotla, came to be associated with bloodshed and murder. Originally called the Kabuli Darwaza (Kabul gateway), its popular name after the 1857 events, is Khuni Darwaza (bloody gateway). This is derived from the fact that King Bahadur Shah's sons were first stripped and then killed there by Captain Hodson (Plate 3) (Nanda et al. 1999, I: 182). This sobriquet, incidentally, imitated the name of the other gateway called Khuni Darwaza which stood near the Dariba in Chandni Chowk. That too had been so named because it was the site of a ferocious massacre when the city's inhabitants had been killed in large numbers by Nadir Shah, the eighteenth-century Persian invader (Hasan 1916,1: 123-4). More than anything else, this suggests that Delhi's residents viewed the British celebration of their conquest of the city as something which replicated the bloodshed and plunder that followed in the wake of medieval conquerors.

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Jones 回到英国后，这些镶嵌板很快成为肯辛顿博物馆（今维多利亚与阿尔伯特博物馆）印度文物收藏的一部分。对德里的洗劫，是这场暴力冲突影响城市物质文化的一面；另一面则是有意的“去神圣化”（desacralization）（Cohn 1987: 646）：一些最重要建筑和城市街区原有的功能与布局被人为改变。作为城市抵抗象征的红堡遭到剧烈改造。堡内进行大规模清拆，目的在于“开辟有利于欧洲兵营和其他驻军部队占用红堡的健康空间”（Secretary Punjab 1863）。许多被认为价值“较低”、无法有效利用或不值得保存的建筑被拆除；地面也被推平，清拆产生的瓦砾被用来修筑城墙外的斜坡防御带。红堡大片区域兴建兵营，历史建筑则被改造成适应驻军需要的设施。军官住进鼓楼（Naqar Khana），Zafar Mahal 被用作士兵浴室，大众觐见殿（Diwan'i Am）则加装木门和铁栅。Zafar Mahal 附近、Hayat Baksh 花园内以及 Sawan、Bhadon 亭西侧，都修建了厨房、厕所和便池（Marshall 1902）。红堡外的变化更加剧烈：城墙外 450 码范围内的建筑都要清除。比较 Felice Beato 在 1858 年清拆前拍摄的照片与今天的景观，可以直观感受这种近乎外科手术式拆除的程度（见 Masselos and Gupta 2000: 20ff.）。照片显示，17 世纪

的 Akbarabadi 清真寺不幸成为牺牲品；该寺由沙贾汗的一位妻子建造并以她命名。Urdu bazaar 和 Khas bazaar 等历史市场——皇帝在节庆日曾由此以仪仗前往 Jama Masjid——以及以沙贾汗宰相 S'a-ad-ullah Khan 命名的广场都被夷平。官方宣称这是出于军事需要，为了消除所谓“危险掩体”；但 Gupta 尖锐地指出，“政府认为自身安全所必需的措施，导致城中一些最美丽的建筑遭到毁坏”。幸运的是，王宫德里门附近小巧雅致的 Sunehri Masjid 逃过拆除，显然因为它几乎不能提供任何“掩护”（Deputy Commissioner 1871）。Dariba 街区也幸存下来，虽然它原本处于应清除建筑的 500 码范围内。政府认为，若得罪当地曾向总督坎宁请愿的印度教商人和店主，在政治上并不明智（Secretary 1860）；为了保住 Dariba，红堡清拆半径最终从 500 码缩减为 450 码。城市清真寺同样清楚体现出有意的去神圣化。Sunehri Masjid 虽然没有被拆，却因属于王室建筑范围而被英国政府没收。离红堡不远的 Jama Masjid 是德里最大的礼拜清真寺，官方关闭其公共礼拜功能，并一度交给锡克士兵作兵营使用。红堡以南的 Zinat-ul-Masjid 则…… ……被军事当局没收（图版 2）。作为城中最壮观的清真寺之一，它被军需部门改成给军队供应面包的烘焙房；后来又加建了一些十分碍眼的设施，使其中一部分兼作住宅（Officer 1890）。月光集市西端的 Fatehpuri 清真寺则遭受了另一种亵渎：清真寺被没收，其商铺与四合院在公开拍卖中卖给城中最富有的印度教银行家之一 Chunna Mal。原本供宗教典籍学生使用、面向院落的房间，被新主人改成商铺（Deputy Commissioner 1877）。Sabzi mandi（蔬菜市场）地区的 Sadruddin 清真寺也受到类似处理。这座清真寺和所在花园原属 Maulvi Sadruddin Khan，但起义后作为没收财产被出售…… 图版 2：1858 年的 Zinat'ul Masjid。照片：印度考古调查局，Delhi Album（第 5 卷，1932-37）。 ……给 Jauhari Mal，后来又被一名“欧洲人”用作住宅（Deputy Commissioner 1877）。报复并不局限于城墙内。作为惩罚措施，德里地区多达三十三个村庄的大量农地被没收，其中包括 Alipur、Chandrawal、Kotla Mubarakpur、Mehrauli、Indraprastha、Palam、Raisina 和 Wazirabad 等（Gupta 1981: 31）。Chandrawal 的土地因该村曾洗劫军营而被没收；Alipur 村则因为地主“在战争期间抢劫公路”而受到同样处罚（Temple 1858）。被没收的乡村土地规模很大：Chandrawal 三分之二的村地被没收，在 Wazirpur 和 Alipur 则超过一半。有人指称，大量土地后来被作为“忠诚服务”的奖赏授予他人，或被并非本村居民的人买走，从而改变了德里的社会地理。没收与拆除行动最终结束时，留下的是一座遍体鳞伤、残缺不全的城市。获胜的英国军队事实上把全体居民都当作叛国有罪者，并确保惩罚在物质空间中留下持久痕迹。被征服的人群几乎无能为力，只能记忆和哀悼；而这些方式往往很难通过物质文化证据辨认出来。一位传教士的经历对此有非常动人的说明：他有一次要求一班传道员学生写一篇有关“兵变”的作文，结果每个青年都交上一张白纸。“这是一场沉默的、全体一致的、毫无歉意的拒绝”（Thompson 1926: 120）。这强烈唤起起义留下的痛苦记忆，也印证了 Thompson 的观察：“许多印度人在与英国人交谈时，兵变的影子在他们心灵深处掠过——一个尚未复仇、也未被安抚的幽灵”（1926: 30）。不过，这样的社会记忆很少留下物质痕迹；有时它却会附着在事件发生的景观之上。自起义以后，德里城墙南侧、Firoz Shah Kotla 对面的石拱门便与流血和杀戮联系起来。它原名 Kabuli Darwaza（喀布尔门），1857 年后却在民间被称作 Khuni Darwaza（血门），因为 Bahadur Shah 国王的儿子们先在此被剥去衣服，随后被 Hodson 上尉杀害（图版 3）（Nanda et al. 1999, I: 182）。这个称号还仿照了月光集市 Dariba 附近另一座也叫 Khuni Darwaza 的城门；后者之所以得名，是因为 18 世纪波斯征服者纳迪尔沙入侵时，那里曾发生大规模屠杀（Hasan 1916, I: 123-4）。这尤其说明，在德里居民看来，英国人庆祝征服城市的方式，实际上重复了中世纪征服者带来的流血与掠夺。

Memorializing the revolt

纪念起义

English original

If the 1857 destruction and demolition physically altered Delhi, the construction by the victors of sites of remembrance and commemoration on the 'mutiny' landscape - from the Plate 3 Painting which depicts Captain Hodson's slaying of the Mughal princes. Photograph: Swatantrata Sangram Sangrahalaya. graves of the dead to memorials around episodes of the revolt - was equally transfiguring. One does not have to be a specialist in symbolism to realize that some of these sites can be read as ideological statements, where the monuments, and epigraphs inscribed on them, contributed to the construction of one of the archetypal myths of British India, that of sacrifice and bravery 'selflessly' displayed for a larger cause. At least, that is how the monuments were packaged by guidebooks for the English travellers who visited Delhi. For example, Gordon Risley Hearn's The Seven Cities of Delhi devoted its first chapter to an itinerary for travellers in and around the city's 'mutiny' sites so that they could visualize 'the story of this strenuous struggle by which India was saved' (1906: 20). No visible agenda, though, can be discerned in the spatial distribution of the mutiny dead. A separate military cemetery for the British army men who died in the revolt was not set up; their graves are dispersed over a large area. A few of them were buried near the scenes of military action where they were killed, such as Captain G. C. M. Barnett and Lieutenant Alexander William Murray, who both died on 14 September. While Barnett was buried alone, south of the Ridge, Murray was interred near the Pir Ghaib observatory on the Ridge. This was not always so. Colonel C. Chester, for instance, who was killed by the first discharge of the rebel guns at the battle of Badli-ki-Sarai, was buried in the Military Cemetery near the British cantonments, several miles south of the battle arena. The resting place of the officers who were murdered at the Main Guard of Kashmiri Gate was also at some distance from where they had been killed. This is because their bodies were sent by the rebels to the Flagstaff Tower on the Ridge where they remained on a cart till 8 June, when the British forces who reoccupied the Ridge on that day found them. They were accorded a multiple burial near where their bodies were found. Then there were the chief commanding officers who had died during those fateful four months. One of them, Major General Sir Henry Barnard, was buried in the Military Cemetery, while the British 'hero' of the Delhi assault, Brigadier-General John Nicholson, was consigned to the Kashmiri gate cemetery. His grave was covered with a large marble slab, which had apparently been taken (or purloined?) from the defeated king's palace (Plate 4). Nicholson was memorialized in other ways as well. Possibly he was the only British officer whose statue was put up in Delhi - across the road from where he was buried, in what came to be called the Nicholson gardens. Not far from this, near Kabul gate, a tablet was also placed behind the battlements which identified this as the place where Nicholson was mortally wounded. The cemetery where he was buried, however, was indifferently provided for. A few years after the revolt, D. P. Williams, Chaplain of Delhi, was shocked to find that many of the graves in the cemetery, especially those of the epidemic victims of 1861, had been disturbed and 'the remains of the dead dragged out by jackals' (Williams 1863). Fortunately for his admirers, Nicholson's mortal remains were untouched because of the solid tombstone that sealed them. Rather than the distribution of graves, it is the epitaphs on gravestones and memorial tablets that allow us to visualize how the army wanted their dead to be remembered. The Plate 4 John Nicholson's grave in 1858. Photograph: Archaeological Survey of India, Delhi albu (Vol. 5, 1934-5)

中文译文

如果说 1857 年的破坏和拆除在物质上改变了德里，那么胜利者在“兵变”景观中建造记忆与纪念地点——从死者墓葬到围绕起义事件设置的纪念物——同样具有重塑城市的力量。 图版 3：描绘 Hodson 上尉杀害莫卧儿王子的绘画。照片：Swatantrata Sangram Sangrahalaya。 即使不是象征主义专家，也很容易看出其中一些地点可以被解读为意识形态声明：纪念碑及其铭文共同参与建构英属印度最典型的神话之一，即为了更宏大事业而“无私”牺牲与英勇奋战的神话。至少，面向来德里旅行的英国人的导游书，就是这样包装这些纪念物的。例如 Gordon Risley Hearn 的《德里七城》（The Seven Cities of Delhi）第一章专门设计了一条穿行于城市及周边“兵变”遗址的旅游路线，让游客能够想象“那场拯救印度的艰苦斗争的故事”（1906: 20）。不过，从兵变死者墓葬的空间分布中并看不出明确规划。英国军人在起义中死亡后并未统一安葬于单独的军事公墓，他们的墓散布在很大范围内。有些人被埋在阵亡地点附近，例如 G. C. M. Barnett 上尉和 Alexander William Murray 中尉，两人都死于 9 月 14 日；Barnett 单独葬在山脊南侧，Murray 则葬在山脊上的 Pir Ghaib 天文台附近。但并非所有人都如此。C. Chester 上校在 Badli-ki-Sarai 战斗中遭起义军第一轮炮击杀死，却被埋在英国兵营附近的军事公墓，离战场向南数英里。克什米尔门 Main Guard 处被杀军官的安葬地也与遇害地点相距较远，因为起义者把他们的尸体送到山脊上的 Flagstaff Tower，尸体一直放在一辆车上…… ……直到 6 月 8 日，当天重新占领山脊的英军才发现他们。这些尸体随后在发现地点附近合葬。那四个决定性月份里还死去了一些最高级指挥官。其中亨利·巴纳德少将葬于军事公墓，而德里

进攻中的英国“英雄”约翰·尼科尔森准将则葬在克什米尔门公墓。他的墓上覆盖着一块大型大理石板，据说是从战败国王的宫殿中取走（或偷走？）的（图版 4）。尼科尔森还以其他方式被纪念。他可能是唯一在德里树立雕像的英国军官；雕像就立在墓地马路对面，那里后来被称作 Nicholson Gardens。不远处的喀布尔门附近，城垛后还安置了一块牌匾，标示尼科尔森在此受到致命伤。不过，他所在的公墓本身维护得相当敷衍。起义几年后，德里牧师 D. P. Williams 震惊地发现，公墓中很多坟墓——尤其是 1861 年传染病死者的墓——已被破坏，“死者遗骸被豺狼拖了出来”（Williams 1863）。对仰慕者而言幸运的是，尼科尔森的遗体因坚固墓碑封住而未被扰动。与墓葬分布相比，墓碑和纪念牌上的铭文更能让我们看到军方希望后人怎样记住死者。 图版 4：1858 年的约翰·尼科尔森墓。照片：印度考古调查局，Delhi Album（第 5 卷，1934-35）。

English original

epitaphs generally mention the ranks of the soldiers, the contexts in which they died and the persons who inscribed the messages. The gravestone of Nicholson not only mentioned his age (35) and the day he died (23 September) but also that he had led the assault on Delhi and had been mortally wounded 'in the hour of victory'. Details of death, however, were sometimes omitted when the commanding officer had died in less glorious circumstances. General Henry Barnard, for instance, was a Crimean veteran but was new to India and had collapsed in Delhi on 5 July, after a short attack of cholera. Death through disease must have been an embarrassing circumstance to record on the gravestone of the officer who commanded the Delhi force. The inscription on his grave, therefore mentioned only that he died 'when in chief command of the troops besieging Delhi' (Fanshawe 1902:80). The brevity of the epitaphs on the graves of Barnard and Nicholson, however, contrasts sharply with several other memorial inscriptions. An example of an elaborate message on stone, for the dead soldiers of the 2nd European Bengal Fusiliers, comes from the church of St James. Set up by the regiment, it mentions the names of almost two hundred officers and men who 'in glorious sacrifice to their country' lost their lives in 'the defence of the honor of their beloved Queen and country in avenging their murdered countrymen and women, in crushing a mutiny unrivalled for its atrocities and in the final assault and capture of the city of Delhi'. The manner in which such inscriptions invoke British patriotism and sacrifice is strongly reminiscent of the language and the sentiments of a great deal of 'mutiny' literature that was woven around similar tales of 'selfless bravery' in the face of'native atrocities' (Singh 1973). There are a few tablets that refer to the familial associations of dead soldiers but, generally speaking, such information is absent from the army graves. How their surviving kin viewed this absence, as also the manner of burial at what became, for them, sites of remembrance, remains unknown. But, at least at one location, a widow decided to commemorate her husband separately. He was C. A. Edwards who had been interred in the multiple grave near Flagstaff Tower by his 'brother officers'. Apart from setting out the circumstances in which they had died, the army memorial stone remembered them as army men who belonged to the 54th Regiment of the Bengal Native Infantry. Edwards' widow, though, wanted her husband to be remembered in other ways. On the epitaph which she had separately inscribed within the same enclosure, he is memorialized not merely as a soldier ('ever ready when Duty called him'), but as a son (the eldest of R. V. Edwards of Clifton, Bristol), also as a man of 'Christian virtues' and, most poignantly, as an affectionate husband. As she put it, 'in the endearing character of Husband, his fond care and affection with the memory of many sterling qualities will ever be sacredly Cherished by her who must ever Mourn his sad and untimely end.... This Tomb is erected by his bereaved and sorrowing widow' (for the full inscription, see Irving 1910:16). Apart from the graves, what produced a coherent archaeological arena of remembrance was the perpetuation of the memory of incidents that were crucial, from the British perspective, in the trajectory of events that unfolded between May and September 1857. Such commemoration mainly, though not exclusively, attached itself to the sites where the events had unfolded. If we proceed chronologically, the most heroic act (for the British) of 11 May, when the revolt began in Delhi, was the deliberate blowing up of the Expense magazine, south of Kashmiri gate. Two gates of the magazine, which is practically all that remained of it, became a memorial monument and on them was inscribed the memory of the actions of the 'nine resolute Englishmen' who fired it. Five of them perished in the ensuing explosion, which, the tablet informs us 'at the same time destroyed many of the enemy'. Then, there were the events of early June when the British regained the Ridge and returned to the Delhi cantonments after winning a crucial battle at Badli-ki-Sarai. The 3m-high red sandstone column at Azadpur, in the vicinity of the battle site, commemorated that victory. Bearing the ornamental logo of the Gordon Highlanders, this was a memorial to the members of its 75th Regiment who were killed in that battle. The most comprehensive memorialization, though, was with reference to the assault on the city in September 1857. For one thing, inscriptions were fixed on the half a dozen or so siege batteries that had been used in the attack and were located across the alignment of the Ridge, from Qudsia Gardens near the river where the Siege Mortar Battery stood, to the Sammy House Battery, south-east of Bara Hindu Rao. The legends - much like museum labels - identified, in each case, the commanding officers, the nature of armaments, and the specific action for which these were used, whether it was to 'silence' the Kashmir bastion or to 'breach' the curtain of the Water bastion of the rebels. In the context of September 1857, even death in

unsuccessful military action was commemorated. For instance, a memorial was set up near the grave of Captain Barnett, which marked the losses that the 1st Bengal Fusiliers suffered near this spot. The soldiers who had died formed part of the 4th column that was vigorously rebuffed by the rebel army, although the epitaph remembers only their bravery, not the failed assault: 'Familiar with the aspect of Death which they had confronted in many battles from which they had always emerged victorious, they met his last inevitable call here with intrepid duty, falling on the 14th September 1857 in the faithful discharge of their duty' (Fanshawe 1902:62). In fact, as one surveys the 'mutiny' landscape, the proactive manner in which the army commemorated scenes of action becomes palpable, as does the absence of this in relation to those incidents in which people were killed through massacre and mob violence. There were, for instance, no state memorials for the 'civilians' - mainly women and children - who were killed in front of the Naqqar Khana in the Red Fort nor for the others who were put to death by the rebels in different parts of the city. Subsequently, it was at the initiative of the Baptist Mission that funds were collected to build a church in the memory of the English and Indian Christians who lost their lives on the outbreak of the revolt. Known as the St Stephen's Memorial Church, it was first opened for service on 11 May 1867, the tenth anniversary of the 1857 rebellion (Gazetteer of the Delhi District 1884: 63). Apart from the creation of a new church, the memory of various 'civilian' victims was also immortalized in the church where many of them must have worshipped, that of St James. Social remembrance at St James took the form of memorial stones, set up by the families and friends of the dead. Simon Fraser, the murdered Commissioner of Delhi was memorialized here, by an unnamed 'old friend', as was T. W. Collins, deputy collector of Delhi and members of his family, ranging from his wife and children to his mother-in-law and his brothers-in-law. The memorial tablet for this large kin group was set up by the 'surviving orphans of T. W. Collins'. A tablet was also erected in the memory of Doctor Chaman Lal who had been killed on the first day of the revolt in Delhi. While the identity of those who set up a memorial for him remains unmentioned, the language of the inscription clearly suggests that it must have been a 'European' church person. Chaman Lal's name appears in its anglicized form - as Chimmun Lall - while he is described as a 'Native Christian' who converted from Hinduism in 1852 and 'fell a martyr to his faith on the day of the Massacre of Christians in Delhi'. At the same time, to ensure that 'natives' could also read the text, it was inscribed in both English and Urdu. Finally, inside the church was interred part of the tomb of the late William Fraser that had been desecrated by the rebels in May 1857 (see p. 37 above). This is a beautiful stone slab, inlaid with green and yellow stones in the design of a tree. In memory of the friendship of Fraser and James Skinner, this was set in the chancel floor, west of Skinner's own grave and engraved with an inscription that sets forth the reasons as to why the slab had been re-enshrined inside the church.

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墓志通常会提到士兵的军衔、死亡情境以及铭写纪念文字的人。尼科尔森的墓碑不仅记载他的年龄（35 岁）和死亡日期（9 月 23 日），还写明他曾领导对德里的突击，并在“胜利的时刻”受到致命伤。不过，当指挥官死得不够荣耀时，死亡细节有时会被省略。例如亨利·巴纳德将军曾参加克里米亚战争，但刚到印度不久，7 月 5 日在德里短暂感染霍乱后倒下。对一名指挥德里部队的军官来说，因病死亡显然不适合写在墓碑上，因此他的铭文只说他死于“担任围攻德里的军队最高指挥官之时”（Fanshawe 1902: 80）。不过，巴纳德和尼科尔森墓志的简短，与许多其他纪念铭文形成鲜明对比。圣詹姆斯教堂内为孟加拉欧洲第二燧发枪团阵亡者所立石碑，就是一则详细铭文的例子。它由该团设立，列出近两百名军官和士兵姓名，称他们“为祖国作出光荣牺牲”，在“捍卫他们敬爱的女王与国家的荣誉、为被谋杀的男女同胞复仇、镇压一场暴行空前的兵变，以及最后突击并夺取德里城”的过程中失去生命。这类铭文诉诸英国爱国主义和牺牲精神，其语言和情感与大量“兵变”文学高度相似；后者同样围绕面对“本地人暴行”时的“无私英勇”展开（Singh 1973）。少数牌匾会提到阵亡士兵的家庭关系，但军方墓葬总体上缺少这类信息。幸存亲属如何看待这种缺席，又如何看待这些后来成为他们记忆场所的安葬方式，我们并不知道。不过至少有一个地点，一位寡妇决定另外纪念自己的丈夫。他是 C. A. Edwards，由“战友军官”合葬在 Flagstaff Tower 附近。军方纪念石除了说明死亡情形，还把他们作为孟加拉本地步兵第 54 团军人来记忆；Edwards 的遗孀却希望丈夫以更多身份被记住。她在同一围栏内另刻一篇墓志，其中丈夫不只是军人——“责任召唤时，他总是随时准备”——还是一个儿子（Bristol Clifton 的 R. V. Edwards 长子）、一个具有“基督徒美德”的人，更令人感伤的是一个深情的丈夫。她写道：“作为亲爱的丈夫，他的关怀和爱意，以及他许多可靠品质的记忆，将永远被那个必须终身哀悼他悲惨而过早离世的人神圣珍藏……此墓由他悲痛、丧偶的妻子建立”（完整铭文见 Irving 1910: 16）。除墓葬外，使这些地点构成一个连贯的考古记忆空间的，是对 1857 年 5 月至 9 月间英国视角下若干关

键事件的持续纪念。这些纪念主要——但并非完全——依附于事件原发生地。如果按时间顺序考察，5 月 11 日德里起义开始时，英国人眼中最英勇的行动，是有意炸毁克什米尔门以南的 Expense Magazine 火药库。火药库几乎只剩两座大门，它们后来成为纪念物，并在门上铭刻“九名坚定的英国人”引爆火药库的行动。其中五人在爆炸中丧生；碑文还告诉人们，这次爆炸“同时消灭许多敌人”。随后是 6 月初，英国人在 Badli-ki-Sarai 赢得关键战役后重新占据山脊，并回到德里兵营。战场附近 Azadpur 一根 3 米高的红砂岩柱纪念这场胜利，柱上刻有 Gordon Highlanders 的装饰标志，是为其第 75 团在战斗中阵亡者建立的纪念物。不过，最系统的纪念集中在 1857 年 9 月对德里城的进攻。首先，大约六处用于攻击的围城炮台上都固定了铭文牌，这些炮台沿山脊分布，从河边 Qudsia Gardens 的 Siege Mortar Battery 一直到 Bara Hindu Rao 东南的 Sammy House Battery。这些说明文字很像博物馆标签，分别标明指挥官、武器类型和具体用途，例如“压制”克什米尔堡垒，或“轰开”起义者 Water bastion 之间的幕墙。即使是不成功军事行动中的死亡，也在 1857 年 9 月的语境中获得纪念。例如 Barnett 上尉墓附近设有一座纪念物，标示孟加拉第一燧发枪团在此处附近遭受的损失。这些阵亡者属于遭起义军猛烈击退的第四纵队，但碑文只记住他们的勇敢，不提失败的进攻：“他们熟悉死亡的面貌，在许多战斗中都曾直面死亡而总能胜出；1857 年 9 月 14 日，他们在忠实履行职责时倒下，以无畏的责任感迎接死亡最后而不可避免的召唤”（Fanshawe 1902: 62）。事实上，当我们调查“兵变”景观时，可以明显感到军方积极纪念军事行动现场；与此形成对照的是，对屠杀和暴民暴力中遇害者的纪念却相对缺席。例如，红堡 Naqqar Khana 前被杀的“平民”——主要是妇女和儿童——没有国家纪念物，城内其他地点被起义者处死的人也没有。后来，浸礼会传教团主动募款，为起义爆发时遇害的英国和印度基督徒建造教堂。这座圣斯蒂芬纪念教堂于 1867 年 5 月 11 日首次开放礼拜，正值 1857 年起义十周年（Gazetteer of the Delhi District 1884: 63）。除了新建教堂，许多“平民”受害者也在他们生前可能参加礼拜的圣詹姆斯教堂中获得纪念。这里的社会记忆表现为由死者亲友建立的纪念石：遇害的德里专员 Simon Fraser 由一名未署名的“老朋友”纪念；德里副税务官 T. W. Collins 及其妻子、孩子、岳母和内兄弟等一大家族，则由“T. W. Collins 幸存的孤儿们”立碑。起义在德里爆发首日遇害的 Chaman Lal 医生也有纪念牌。虽然立碑者身份没有注明，但铭文语言明显显示这应是一名“欧洲”教会人士。 Chaman Lal 的名字以英语化形式“Chimmun Lall”出现，他被称为一名“本地基督徒”，于 1852 年从印度教改宗，并“在德里基督徒遭屠杀之日为信仰殉道”。同时，为确保“本地人”也能读懂，铭文同时使用英文和乌尔都文。最后，1857 年 5 月被起义者亵渎的 William Fraser 墓的一部分也被移葬到教堂内部（见上文第 37 页）。这是一块美丽的石板，以绿色和黄色石材镶嵌出一棵树的图案。为了纪念 Fraser 与 James Skinner 之间的友谊，它被铺设在唱诗班席地面、Skinner 墓的西侧，并刻上铭文说明为何要把石板重新安置在教堂内部。

English original

A relevant aspect, worth emphasizing, is that the commemoration of particular incidents and events was not simultaneous but staggered, over fifty years or so. An instance in point is the blowing open of Kashmiri gate in September 1857, which was indispensable to the success of the British assault on Delhi, since it had allowed direct passage into the walled city (Plate 5). About a dozen soldiers were either mortally wounded or were killed in clearing it. This, in fact, had drawn special mention, in November 1857, from Governor General Canning, who offered a tribute 'of admiration and thanks to the brave soldiers Plate 5 Kashmiri gate in 1858. Photograph: Archaeological Survey of India, Delhi album (Vol. 2, 1914-15). who, under Lieutenants Home and Salkeld, accomplished the desperate task' (Canning 1857b). But it was after almost two decades (in 1876) that a stone tablet came to be fixed between the arched openings of the gate. This was done by the then Commander in Chief in India, General Lord Napier of Magdala. The tablet mentioned the details of the attack as also the names of the soldiers, English and Indian, who had spearheaded it. Why this commemorative tablet was set up in 1876 is not clear. It may have been fixed when the Prince of Wales visited Delhi in January 1876, although it is likely that this was part of the preparations for the Imperial Assemblage which was held in the city in 1877, to celebrate the assumption of the title of Empress of India by Queen Victoria. The Imperial assemblage will be discussed in the next section, but what may be mentioned here is that Napier's tribute appears to be an incomplete citation. As Fanshawe

(1902: 89) later pointed out, the names of the two 'native' men who had been specially mentioned in the army report for their 'determined bravery and coolness' - Havaldar Ram Taroy and Sepoy Sahib Singh - do not appear on it. H. C. Fanshawe was the deputy commissioner of the area, one who was deeply interested in Delhi's history and monuments, and he chanced upon this error because he was writing a book on the city. In the course of his research, he also noted that the site of No IV Siege Mortar battery had been left uncommemorated. By bearings and offsets from the other batteries and sites marked on the plans of 1857, he determined that this must have stood about a hundred yards inside Qudsia Gardens. A miniature battery was set up there in 1900 and the message that he had inscribed on it faithfully imitated the cryptic inscriptions on the tablets of the other batteries. It read:

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值得强调的一点是，对具体事件的纪念并非同时发生，而是在大约五十年间分阶段展开。一个例子是 1857 年 9 月炸开克什米尔门：这一行动使英军得以直接进入城墙内城区，对攻占德里至关重要（图版 5）。约十几名士兵在清除通道的过程中死亡或受到致命伤。事实上，总督坎宁在 1857 年 11 月就特别提到此事，向那些勇敢士兵表达“敬意与感谢”…… 图版 5：1858 年的克什米尔门。照片：印度考古调查局，Delhi Album（第 2 卷，1914-15）。 …… 他们在 Home 中尉与 Salkeld 中尉指挥下完成了这项绝望的任务”（Canning 1857b）。不过，直到近二十年后的 1876 年，一块石质纪念牌才被安装在城门的拱形开口之间，由当时的印度总司令 Magdala 的 Napier 勋爵主持。牌匾记载了进攻细节，也列出了率先行动的英国和印度士兵姓名。为什么这块纪念牌偏偏在 1876 年设立，并不清楚。可能与威尔士亲王 1876 年 1 月访问德里有关，也可能属于为 1877 年帝国大集会（Imperial Assemblage）进行的准备工作；该集会用于庆祝维多利亚女王获得“印度女皇”称号。下一节将讨论帝国大集会；这里需要指出的是，Napier 的致敬似乎并不完整。Fanshawe（1902: 89）后来发现，军方报告中特别赞扬其“坚定的勇敢与冷静”的两名“本地”士兵——Havaldar Ram Taroy 和 Sepoy Sahib Singh——并未出现在牌匾上。H. C. Fanshawe 当时是当地副专员，对德里的历史和纪念物极感兴趣；他在撰写德里著作时偶然发现这一错误。在研究过程中，他还注意到第四号围城迫击炮阵地（No IV Siege Mortar Battery）并未得到纪念。他根据 1857 年地图中其他炮台与地点的方位和距离推断，它应位于 Qudsia Gardens 内部约一百码处。1900 年，人们在那里建造了一座缩小版炮台；Fanshawe 为其拟写的文字忠实模仿其他炮台牌匾上晦涩简练的铭文，写道：

English original

Left Attack - Lieut. W.A. GREATHED [Directing Engineer, Bengal Engineers, NO IV BATTERY Armament, 10 mortars Captain & Brevet Major Tombs, Royal Artillery, Comm To shell Kashmir Gate & Kashmir & Water Bastions

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“左翼进攻——W. A. Greathed 中尉［指挥工兵，孟加拉工兵部队］；第四号炮台；武装：10 门迫击炮；Tombs 上尉兼名誉少校，皇家炮兵，指挥……炮击克什米尔门以及克什米尔堡垒和 Water Bastion。”

English original

The other memorial which was set up decades after the revolt, although not in the vicinity of the 'original theatre of action', was the Telegraph memorial. On 11 May 1857, the message sent from the Telegraph Office in Delhi had forewarned other British station about the unfolding revolt. This office was originally situated behind Flagstaff House on the Ridge, while the granite obelisk memorial was erected by members of the Telegraph Department in the walled city - in front of the new Telegraph office. Set up on 19 April 1902, it was elaborately inscribed on the front and back. The front epigraph is fairly novel in the sense that it tells us about the staff composition of the office in 1857, remembers the 'loyal and devoted services' of the two young signallers who telegraphed information about what was happening in Delhi and gives details about their subsequent careers. It also takes full credit for the British victory in 1857, ending with the words of Sir Robert Montgomery that 'The Electric Telegraph has saved India'! Although the British army would have disagreed with Montgomery's assessment, the biographical details certainly helped to correct the colourful mythology that had been created around this event, at least in one account. Apparently, Cooper's Handbook for Delhi, written in 1863 (see Fanshawe 1902:108) had mentioned that, on 11 May 1857, the signaller at Delhi was killed with his hand still upon the telegraph instrument, whereas, as the Telegraph memorial tells us, neither of them died in such dramatic circumstances. While one of them, J. W. Pilkington, had died a decade after the revolt, in 1867, the other signaller, W. Brendish, had retired from service only in 1896. But why was the memorial set up only in 1902? As in the case of the Kashmiri gate tablet,

we shall, perhaps, never know, although one suspects that it may have to do with the enthusiasm of Fanshawe, who believed that the British government in India had done too little to hallow the memories of its dead servants who 'fell before Delhi, upholding the cause of their country' (Fanshawe 1902: 80). After all, it was Fanshawe who had recommended that a memorial cross be set up in the Military Cemetery where many mutiny veterans, including Henry Barnard, were buried. Finally, a word about the official Mutiny Memorial of Delhi that was erected in 1863. Constructed on the site of the artillery unit known as Taylor's battery, which bore the brunt of rebel fire, there is much about the character of this tapering red sandstone monument that can be discussed (Plate 6). There is, for instance, its indifferent Gothic design, which resembles 'a telescope badly drawn out' (Fanshawe 1902: 85). The arched Plate 6 Mutiny Memorial on the northern Ridge. Photograph: author. marble-backed recesses, inset on all sides of the octagonal tower, are also poorly executed, occasionally created out of three separate pieces of stone. What is most striking, though, is that these recesses are prolifically inscribed and appear to comprehensively set out the narrative of the Delhi revolt. There is a detailed list of regiments that were present, actions that were fought at or near Delhi by the Delhi Field Force, a chronology about the siege ranging from the arming of batteries to the capture of the palace, and a carefully compiled 'return of casualties' suffered by the army. There are separate columns that record the number of soldiers killed, wounded and missing and also the corps to which they belonged. However, as we examine the memorial narrative more carefully, it becomes evident that historical details are selectively inscribed. There is no mention at all of British army actions in Delhi on 11 May, or in the days that followed, perhaps because they failed to suppress the revolt. Nor are the British soldiers who died in those early days thought worthy of commemoration. In a sense, its Hindustani name, Fatehgarh ('Victory Fort') is an appropriate one, because its narrative of commemoration concerns itself exclusively with British successes against rebel forces (Hasan 1976, II: 282). What also stands out in the Mutiny Memorial's encapsulated history are military and race distinctions. Army hierarchy is reflected in the manner in which the casualties are presented, in three categories - officers, non-commissioned officers and soldiers. Racial difference is inscribed into each of these categories; the casualties are subdivided into 'European' and 'Native'. Generally speaking, on memorial monuments, the names of soldiers who died are listed, but in this case, of the 1,029 army men who perished, only forty-seven are specifically mentioned. Even in death, Englishmen were privileged over their racial 'others'. The inscribed names are 'European', mainly those of dead officers. The fourteen 'native' officers who perished remain anonymous, reduced to a mere statistical detail in the monument's inventory of casualties.

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另一座在起义数十年后建立、而且并不位于“原始战场”附近的纪念物，是电报纪念碑。1857 年 5 月 11 日，从德里电报局发出的信息提前警告其他英国驻地，德里正在发生起义。原电报局位于山脊 Flagstaff House 后方，但由电报部门成员建立的花岗岩方尖碑却坐落在城墙内的新电报局前。纪念碑于 1902 年 4 月 19 日设立，正反两面都有详细铭文。正面铭文颇为新颖：它说明 1857 年电报局的人员组成，纪念两名年轻报务员“忠诚而尽责的服务”——他们把德里正在发生的情况电传出去——并交代两人此后的职业经历。铭文甚至把英国在 1857 年的胜利很大程度归功于电报，最后引用 Robert Montgomery 爵士的话：“电报拯救了印度！”英国军方也许不会同意 Montgomery 的评价，但这些个人履历至少纠正了围绕此事件形成的一种彩色传奇。据说 Cooper 于 1863 年撰写的《德里手册》（Handbook for Delhi；见 Fanshawe 1902: 108）曾说，1857 年 5 月 11 日德里报务员遇害时，手还放在电报仪器上；然而电报纪念碑告诉我们…… ……两人都没有以如此戏剧性的方式死亡。其中 J. W. Pilkington 是在起义十年后的 1867 年去世；另一位报务员 W. Brendish 直到 1896 年才退休。那么为什么纪念碑直到 1902 年才建立？和克什米尔门牌匾一样，我们也许永远无法知道；不过可以怀疑，这与 Fanshawe 的热情有关。他认为，印度的英国政府在神圣化那些“为祖国事业、倒在德里城前”的已故公务员记忆方面做得太少（Fanshawe 1902: 80）。毕竟，也正是 Fanshawe 建议在军事公墓树立纪念十字架；包括 Henry Barnard 在内的许多“兵变”老兵都葬在那里。最后，还要谈到德里官方的“兵变纪念碑”（Mutiny Memorial），它建于 1863 年，位于 Taylor's Battery 炮兵阵地原址——该阵地曾承受起义军最猛烈的炮火。这座逐渐收窄的红砂岩建筑，其特征有很多值得讨论之处（图版 6）。例如，它的哥特式设计相当平庸，Fanshawe 说它像“一架被拉得不成比例的望远镜”（1902: 85）。八角塔各面嵌入的拱形凹槽，背板由大理石制作，工艺同样粗糙，有些甚至由三块不同石料拼成。 图版 6：北部山脊上的“兵变纪念碑”。照片：作者。 不过最引人注目的是，这些凹槽密集刻满文字，看上去像是全面讲述了德里起义的经过。碑上详细列出参战团部、德里野战军在德里及其附近参加的战斗、从炮台装备到攻占王宫的围城时间表，以及军队

经过仔细汇编的“伤亡统计”。另设栏目记录阵亡、受伤与失踪士兵的数量和所属部队。然而仔细查看这套纪念叙事，就会发现历史细节是选择性刻写的。碑文完全不提 5 月 11 日及其后几天英国军队在德里的行动，或许因为那些行动未能镇压起义；早期几天死亡的英国士兵也未被视为值得纪念。从这个意义说，它的印度斯坦语名称 Fatehgarh（“胜利堡”）十分贴切，因为其纪念叙事只关注英军对起义军取得的成功（Hasan 1976, II: 282）。这座纪念碑浓缩的历史中，军队等级与种族差异也十分突出。伤亡名单分成军官、士官和士兵三类，体现军阶制度；每一类内部又按“欧洲人”和“本地人”细分，以文字固定种族区别。一般来说，纪念碑会列出阵亡者姓名，但这里 1029 名阵亡军人中只有 47 人被具体点名。即使在死亡之后，英国人仍享有高于种族“他者”的特权：刻出的姓名都是“欧洲人”，主要是阵亡军官；14 名阵亡的“本地”军官全部匿名，只被缩减为纪念碑伤亡清单中的一个统计数字。

The afterlife of 1857 in Delhi

1857 年在德里的后续生命

English original

The British consolidation of their victory over the Delhi rebels in 1857 had a very specific material impact on the city, as did the various memorials that sprang up across its terrain. In the decades that followed, this memorialized landscape continued to be confirmed and elaborated by the victors, as has been touched upon in the previous section. But, simultaneously, there were also policy shifts that materially changed and occasionally inverted aspects of the revolt's brutal aftermath. This simultaneous confirmation and inversion clearly stands out in the setting of the Imperial Assemblage that was held twenty years after the revolt, in 1877. With the end of the Company's rule, the British Crown had become the centre of authority and, as conditions in India stabilized, this relationship was further cemented by the addition of a new title by Queen Victoria in 1876 - that of the Empress of India. Some months later, a grand gathering of the British rulers, Indian princes, nobles, 'native' gentlemen, etc., was organized to celebrate this addition. Even though Calcutta was the nerve centre of British India, it was decided by the planners that this assemblage should be held in Delhi because the city represented the erstwhile Mughal capital. By placing the Queen's authority upon the old throne of the Mughals, it was hoped that the supreme power that she enjoyed over her Indian subjects would be symbolically reiterated within the parameters of Indian tradition (Cohn 1987: 656; also see Trevithick 1990). Within Delhi, a city of tents and pavilions for the accommodation of the various attending dignitaries was set up, and, significantly enough, as the official history of the Imperial Assemblage tells us: the English camps mostly stood on the memorable site which was occupied by the British army in 1857. On one side was the Ridge where British cannon was planted against the doomed city. On the other side was the Nujufgarh Canal, which formed the rear of the besieging force. It was difficult to gaze upon the different camps without recalling some of the scenes in that famous siege. (Wheeler 1982 [1877]: 47) The procession which brought the viceroy and various guests from the railway station to the camp also followed a route that circumambulated the terrain of the revolt. It lasted for three hours and proceeded from the station to Jama Masjid, turned around the mosque and entered the Chandni Chowk. It then went through the Lahore gate, moving on to the Sabzi Mandi, 'the scene of many hard fought battles during the great siege', and, finally, went up the Ridge 'so gallantly held by British troops during the height of the troubles in 1857' (Wheeler 1982 [1877]: 56). There is little doubt that Lord Lytton's Assemblage unambiguously refreshed, for the participants and observers, the memory of the revolt in Delhi and the bravery and 'sacrifice' that were involved in its suppression. At the same time, encoded in its enactment were many other messages that worked against the grain of the 1857 victory. For one thing, the assemblage was part of a policy to develop better ties between Indians, especially the 'native' aristocracy of the country, and the Crown. On the landscape where they had faced each other as foes, they were now meeting as 'friends', we are told, as shots and shells were replaced by feasting and cordiality. The occasion was also used to make a specific announcement aimed to 'undo' the damage that had been inflicted on Muslim sentiment in Delhi in 1857. This concerned the reopening of the Zinat-ul-Masjid and the Fatehpuri mosques for public worship. In the latter case, more than a lakh (100,000) of rupees was paid as compensation to Umrao Singh, the son of Chunna Mal, so as to enable the transfer of the shops and quadrangle to Muslims (Deputy Commissioner 1877). This did not mean that the mosques reverted to their pre-1857 status. In fact, as in the case of the Jama Masjid (which was reopened for worship in November 1862), certain conditions were laid down under which they were to be transferred, which included making proper arrangements for them being kept in repair. Evidently, British officials saw no contradiction in making the repair of the mosques a precondition for their reopening even while, a few hundred yards from them, the British army drastically changed the character of equally historic buildings inside the Red Fort. The government also reserved the right to resume possession if the managers of the mosques failed

to act upon the stipulated conditions. So, while the measures were packaged as 'concessions' which were aimed at mitigating the 1857 confiscation of the mosques, the reified form in which they were handed over made it amply clear to Delhi's residents that the British Raj was the centre of all authority pertaining to them.

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英国在 1857 年巩固对德里起义者的胜利，对城市产生了非常具体的物质影响；散布在城市各处的各种纪念物也同样如此。此后几十年里，胜利者持续确认并扩展这片纪念化景观，上一节已经有所涉及。但与此同时，政策也发生转变，实际改变、甚至偶尔逆转起义残酷后果的某些方面。1877 年、起义二十年后举行的帝国大集会（Imperial Assemblage），最清楚地显示了这种“确认”与“逆转”同时存在的情形。东印度公司统治终结后，英国王室成为权威中心；随着印度局势稳定，1876 年维多利亚女王增加“印度女皇”这一新称号，又进一步巩固了这种关系。几个月后，英国统治者、印度王公、贵族、“本地”绅士等参加了一场盛大集会，以庆祝这一新称号。虽然加尔各答是英属印度的权力中枢，筹办者仍决定把集会放在德里，因为这座城市象征昔日莫卧儿帝国的首都。通过把女王的权威放置在…… ……莫卧儿旧王座之上，英国希望在印度传统的框架内，以象征方式再次确认女王对印度臣民拥有的最高权力（Cohn 1987: 656；另见 Trevithick 1990）。为了接待参加集会的各类显贵，德里搭建起一座由帐篷和亭阁组成的临时城市。更值得注意的是，正如帝国大集会官方历史所说： “英国人的营地大多设在那个令人难忘的地点——1857 年英国军队曾驻扎于此。一边是山脊，当年英国大炮从那里瞄准注定陷落的城市；另一边是 Nujufgarh 运河，它构成围城部队的后方。放眼各个营地，很难不回想起那场著名围城中的一些景象。”（Wheeler 1982 [1877]: 47） 把总督和各位宾客从火车站送往营地的游行路线，也绕行了起义地景。整个行程持续三小时，从车站到 Jama Masjid，绕过清真寺后进入月光集市；随后穿过 Lahore Gate，前往 Sabzi Mandi ——“大围城期间多次激战发生的地点”——最后登上山脊，即“1857 年骚乱最激烈时英国军队如此英勇坚守”的地方（Wheeler 1982 [1877]: 56）。毫无疑问，Lytton 勋爵主持的大集会明确刷新了参与者和观看者对德里起义的记忆，以及镇压过程中所谓勇气与“牺牲”的记忆。不过，这一仪式同时编码了许多与 1857 年胜利叙事逆向而行的信息。首先，大集会本身属于改善英国王室与印度人关系的政策，尤其意在拉近与“本地”贵族阶层的关系。官方叙述告诉我们，双方曾在这片土地上以敌人身份相遇，如今则作为“朋友”见面；炮弹与炮击被宴饮和友好气氛取代。集会还被用来宣布一项具体措施，试图“撤销”1857 年对德里穆斯林感情造成的伤害：Zinat-ul-Masjid 和 Fatehpuri 清真寺将重新开放供公众礼拜。就后者而言，政府向 Chunna Mal 之子 Umrao Singh 支付超过十万卢比的补偿，以便把商铺和四合院转交给穆斯林（Deputy Commissioner 1877）。但这并不意味着清真寺恢复到 1857 年前的状态。就像 1862 年 11 月重新开放的 Jama Masjid 一样，移交附带若干条件，其中包括必须妥善安排建筑维修。显然，英国官员并不觉得以下两件事存在矛盾：一方面把妥善维修清真寺作为重新开放的前提；另一方面，就在几百码外，英国军队却大幅改变红堡内同样具有历史价值的建筑。政府还保留这样一项权利：若清真寺管理者没有履行规定条件，政府可以重新收回占有权。因此，这些措施虽然被包装成旨在减轻 1857 年没收清真寺后果的“让步”，但这种把清真寺作为对象重新“交付”的方式，仍非常清楚地向德里居民表明：英属印度政权才是决定与这些建筑有关一切权力的中心。

English original

Twenty-five years later, a second Imperial Assemblage was organized - a Coronation Darbar to celebrate the coronation of King Edward VII as the Emperor of India. Held in Delhi (in January 1903) by the viceroy, Lord Curzon, this too saw a similar commemoration, in terrain and through rituals that consciously evoked the revolt. An ampitheatre was constructed around the site of Lord Lytton's Darbar which had stood on the land from where the British had fought the rebels in 1857. The route of the viceregal procession, as earlier, traversed much of the 'mutiny' landscape. The 'sufferings and triumphs of nearly half a century ago' (Wheeler 1991 [1905]: 111) were further invoked by the inclusion and assignment of a prominent place in the Darbar to mutiny survivors of the British army, who had fought at Delhi and Lucknow. Of the veterans present, 387 were Indians while twenty-

seven were Europeans and Eurasians and they had been invited so as to give them 'an opportunity to revisit the scene of their former deeds of daring, and to take part in the great solemnity which but for their valour might never have been held' (Wheeler 1991 [1905]: 111). At the same time, this occasion, like the first Imperial Assemblage, in important ways, reconstituted the 1857 legacy. For one thing, it resulted in 'undoing' some of the destruction wreaked by the British forces on historic structures within the walled city. In the Red Fort, structural restorations by the Archaeological Survey of India were undertaken with Darbar funds. This included repairing the inlay work on the low platform in the Diwan i'Am, the replacement of the iron grating around it and also of the wooden balustrades between the Diwan'i Khas and the Musamman Burj. Apart from the occasion itself, it is relevant to remember the general context in which such restorations were undertaken. Lord Curzon's agenda regarding monuments was certainly related to his deep interest in archaeology but, equally, it was animated by the need to make imperial governance appear more enlightened. Historic buildings that had been pillaged or converted into dingy government spaces in 1857, such as those at Delhi, were an embarrassing reminder of 'a century of British vandalism and crime' (as Curzon put it), while dismantling signs of such colonial violence was necessary to lend credence to the construction of a beneficent imperial identity (Lahiri 2000). The programme of architectural conservation and restoration around the Red Fort which coincided with the preparations for the Darbar has to be understood from this perspective. Such measures were urgently required because two notable gatherings connected with it were to be held in the Red Fort, one of which was the State ball, the venue of which was to be the white marble hall of private audience known as the Diwan'i Khas. It is, however, the second gathering - the 'Grand chapter of the two Indian Orders' - which amplifies the circumstances which were instrumental in effacing the violence of the revolt. This investiture ceremony was to be held in the Diwan'i Am, Shah Jahan's Hall of General audience, with the dais placed before the throne platform. This, of course, drew attention to the large gaps in the wall behind the platform, which had been created by the looting of its pietra dura panels by Captain Jones in 1857 (see p. 39 above). The Viceroy and his Council, therefore, immediately requested the return of the panels so that 'the background of the throne should represent to assembled spectators, by a careful restoration, to its original condition, not the vandalism of an earlier generation, but the generous enlightenment of a later and more cultured age' (Curzon and Council 1902). Although the panels reached India before the Darbar, they could not be put in place in time for the

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二十五年后，第二次帝国大集会举行——这一次是为庆祝爱德华七世加冕为印度皇帝的加冕达尔巴。1903 年 1 月，总督柯曾勋爵在德里主持仪式；这次活动同样在空间与仪式上有意识地唤起 1857 年起义。主办方在 Lytton 勋爵当年达尔巴的地点周围建起圆形剧场；这块土地正是 1857 年英军与起义者作战的区域。总督游行路线也像此前一样穿行于大部分“兵变”地景。“近半个世纪前的苦难与胜利”（Wheeler 1991 [1905]: 111）还通过邀请曾在德里和勒克瑙作战的英军“兵变”幸存者，并在达尔巴中给予他们显著位置而被进一步唤起。到场老兵中有 387 名印度人、27 名欧洲人与欧亚裔人；邀请他们，是为了让他们“有机会重访昔日英勇事迹的场所，并参加这场若非他们的勇武便可能永远无法举行的庄严盛典”（Wheeler 1991 [1905]: 111）。与此同时，这次场合与第一次帝国大集会一样，也在重要方面重新构造 1857 年的遗产。其中一个表现，是“撤销”英国军队对城墙内历史建筑造成的部分破坏。印度考古调查局使用达尔巴经费，在红堡开展结构修复，包括修理大众觐见殿低台上的镶嵌工艺、更换其周围铁栅，以及更换特别觐见殿与 Musamman Burj 之间的木栏杆。除了达尔巴本身，还应看到这些修复发生的总体背景。柯曾关于古迹的政策当然与他对考古的浓厚兴趣有关，但同样也出于让帝国治理显得更加开明的需要。1857 年被洗劫、或被改造成阴暗政府空间的历史建筑——如德里的这些建筑——令人尴尬地提醒人们英国“一百年的破坏与罪行”（柯曾语）；消除殖民暴力的可见痕迹，才能使“仁慈帝国”的身份建构更具可信度（Lahiri 2000）。因此，与达尔巴筹备同时进行的红堡建筑保护和修复计划，应从这一角度理解。之所以迫切需要这些措施，是因为两场重要聚会计划在红堡举行。其中一场是国宴舞会，地点为白色大理石建成的特别觐见殿（Diwan'i Khas）。不过，更能说明为何要抹去起义暴力痕迹的，是第二场“印度两大勋章总会”（Grand chapter of the two Indian Orders）授勋仪式。仪式将设在沙贾汗的大众觐见殿（Diwan'i Am），主席台置于皇帝宝座平台前。这样一来，平台后墙上的大片空缺就十分醒目——这些空缺正是 1857 年 Jones 上尉掠走硬石镶嵌板造成的（见上文第 39 页）。因此，总督及其参事会立即要求归还这些镶嵌板，使“王座的背景能够通过谨慎修复恢复原貌，在聚集的

观众面前所代表的，不是前一代人的野蛮破坏，而是后一个、更有文化时代的宽厚开明”（Curzon and Council 1902）。虽然镶嵌板在达尔巴前已经运回印度，却未能及时安装以用于……

English original

investiture ceremony. But, shortly afterwards, they were restored and today they form the backdrop to Shah Jahan's throne. Many other objects that had been removed from the Red Fort in 1857 also had interesting afterlives, not entirely unrelated to questions of remembrance. The trajectory of one, Bahadur Shah Zafar's 'Holy Shirt', is especially interesting. The shirt in question, with verses of the Koran written on it, was apparently one of four similar shirts which had been sent from Mecca to four Muslim powers and was said to provide a kind of immunity against trouble to the wearer. We are told that 'the old king had worn it day and night for the last few days, previous to his flight, in order to avert the coming evil' (Thompson 1909). For some unaccountable reason, he threw it off at the last moment, and it was found by the French nurse of the children of Colonel Tytler near the gate by which the royal party had fled. It then passed into the possession of the Tytler family. The Tytlers kept the shirt in a bank vault but, until this became known, they were the victims of several robberies and more than one serious attempt on their lives. Clearly, the value of the shirt had everything to do with the properties it was supposed to be imbued with: on the one hand, its association with Mecca, on the other hand, its association with the last Mughal king who had become the symbol of Indian resistance against the British. We next hear of the shirt during the Coronation Darbar in 1903 when the Nizam of Hyderabad made an offer of Rs 10,000 for it. A little after that offer was made, the Imam of the Jama Masjid of Delhi wanted Mrs Tytler to allow him to exhibit it in the ground in front of the mosque. He expected that thousands of pilgrims would flock to see it and that the proceeds of the entrance fees could be divided between the masjid and Mrs Tytler. The exhibition was on the verge of taking place but was vetoed at the last moment by the Commissioner of Delhi, Major Douglas. As he put it, he 'could not possibly run the risk of a riot'. According to Edith Livingston-Thompson (1909), the daughter of the late Tytlers, this 'interference was providential, for knowing the numerous attempts that had already been made to get the shirt back, I feel confident that this was but one more and one that in all probability would have succeeded'. Eventually, she sold it for a sum of Rs 12,000 to the Archaeological Survey in 1909. It then became part of the collection of Mughal objects in the archaeological museum of the Red Fort where it is still displayed. So, while the revolt resulted in the banishment of Bahadur Shah Zafar from Delhi, at least the shirt that he lost once again resides in the fort where he spent most of his life, ironically re-enshrined by the political successors of the very people who had looted his palace. Finally, let us now move on to post-independence Delhi, since it is only after 1947 that Delhi's residents and the Indian ruling class have remembered and commemorated the revolt in a palpably material way. Before doing that, it is necessary to point out that, although Delhi remained the political capital of India (the imperial capital of the British had been shifted from Calcutta to Delhi in 1912), independence and the partition of the Indian subcontinent into India and Pakistan changed its basic character in a number of ways. For one thing, there was a massive transfer of population - nearly 500,000 refugees arrived in the city while as many as 330,000 Muslims left Delhi (many of them must have had ancestors who had fought against the British in 1857). From the perspective of the present paper, the manner is significant in which several old inhabitants of Delhi, now free citizens of an independent nation-state, almost immediately articulated demands that were based on the social memory of the revolt. A few months after India attained independence, several Delhi villages petitioned the government to overturn the retribution that they had suffered during the revolt. Such demands, incidentally, were articulated not merely in local meetings but in the Constituent Assembly of India (Deputy Commissioner 1948). The first section of this paper had drawn attention to the manner in which the rural landscape and social geography of the Delhi region had been deliberately changed through the British policy of land confiscation (p. 42 above). The successors of several of the families that had lost their lands in such circumstances now requested their return. Such demands were made by the villages of Chowkri Mubarakbad, Wazirpur, Khampur and Chandrawal (Deputy Commissioner 1948). There is no ambiguity that it is the material milieu of the post-1857 scenario, where Delhi's rebels were penalized by the British for revolting against them, whose change was sought. An extract from a letter written by the General Secretary of the Congress Committee of Wazirpur to the Chief Commissioner of Delhi makes this connection. It asked the Indian government to return the lands that were taken away from us by the British Government during the Jang-i-Azadi (war of independence) ie., in 1857 be restored to us and given back to us as early as possible by the National Government. It may be mentioned here, Sir, that now when our Mother-land (India) has achieved her freedom, the losses which we had undergone during the British Raj and were deprived of many things only because we had participated in the struggle for freedom which resulted in a Revolution of 1857, be made good to us. (Deputy Commissioner 1948) The British, as the victors of 1857, had confiscated their lands and now families were demanding that the Indian government should remember their sacrifice by returning their patrimony to them. Eventually, no transfers took place because the lands were legally in the possession of other proprietors. Still, this reminds us that multiple perspectives cohere around the landscape that is created through the crucible of war. What were sites of victory for the British came to be remembered by those who had peopled them as the material signifiers of their colonized status, a situation which they tried to change as soon as they attained independence. If the rural landscape that had been redrawn in 1857 remained unchanged, the same cannot be said

about other segments of the memorialized landscape. Take the case of the British graveyards, which suffered damage on many occasions. The Nicholson/Kashmiri Gate Cemetery is an example of this. During the 1947 disturbances, apparently, the cemetery and the graves there were badly damaged by refugees who were encamped in that area (High Commissioner 1963). Subsequently, extensive repairs were carried out at the expense of the Chief Commissioner of Delhi. Some years later, in March 1956, this cemetery was deliberately vandalized by a milk seller called Bhooran/Bhawaran Singh from the nearby Qudsia gardens who damaged, broke and upturned nearly 200 graves. He was sentenced that very month to over nine months of rigorous imprisonment 'for trespassing into a graveyard with the intention of hurting the feelings of the Christian community by breaking tombstones' (Staff Reporter 1956). In spite of such episodes, on the whole, the nineteenth-century form of the Nicholson Cemetery is still recognizable.

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……授勋仪式。但不久之后，它们被重新装回原位，今天仍作为沙贾汗宝座的背景。1857 年从红堡移走的许多其他物品，也获得了颇有意味的后续生命，而且与记忆问题并非毫无关系。其中，巴哈杜尔·沙·扎法尔的“圣衣”（Holy Shirt）轨迹尤其有趣。这件衬衣上写有《古兰经》经文，据说是从麦加送给四个穆斯林政权的四件同类衬衣之一，穿着者能够获得某种免除灾祸的保护。有人记载，“老国王在逃亡前的最后几天日日夜夜都穿着它，希望避开即将到来的灾祸”（Thompson 1909）。不知为何，他最后时刻把它脱下；王室成员逃走的城门附近，Tytler 上校子女的法国保姆发现了这件衣服，随后它归 Tytler 家族所有。Tytler 一家把圣衣存入银行保险库；在外界得知此事之前，他们遭遇过数次盗窃和不止一次严重的生命威胁。显然，这件衣服的价值完全与人们相信它具有的属性相关：一方面，它与麦加相联系；另一方面，它又与最后一位莫卧儿皇帝相联系，而后者已经成为印度反英抵抗的象征。下一次听到圣衣的消息是在 1903 年加冕达尔巴期间，当时海得拉巴 Nizam 出价一万卢比购买。此后不久，德里 Jama Masjid 的 Imam 请求 Tytler 夫人允许他在清真寺前的场地展出圣衣。他预计数千名朝圣者会涌来观看，门票收入可以由清真寺和 Tytler 夫人分享。展览几乎就要举行，却在最后时刻被德里专员 Douglas 少校否决；他说自己“绝不可能冒发生骚乱的风险”。已故 Tytler 夫妇之女 Edith Livingston-Thompson（1909）认为，这次“干预简直是天意，因为知道此前已经有那么多次试图夺回圣衣的行动，我确信这不过又是一次，而且很可能会成功”。最终，她于 1909 年以一万二千卢比把圣衣卖给印度考古调查局。此后它成为红堡考古博物馆莫卧儿文物收藏的一部分，至今仍在那里展出。因此，起义虽然导致巴哈杜尔·沙·扎法尔被逐出德里，但他曾经遗失的圣衣最终再次回到他度过人生大部分岁月的红堡；讽刺的是，重新把它供奉起来的，正是当年洗劫其宫殿者的政治继承人。最后，我们转向独立后的德里，因为直到 1947 年以后，德里居民和印度统治阶层才以明显的物质方式记忆并纪念起义。不过首先需要指出：德里仍然是印度政治首都（英国的帝国首都已于 1912 年从加尔各答迁至德里），但独立以及印度次大陆分裂为印度和巴基斯坦，在许多方面改变了这座城市的基本性质。首先发生的是大规模人口迁移：近 50 万难民进入城市，同时多达 33 万穆斯林离开德里；这些离开者中不少人的祖先很可能曾在 1857 年反英作战。从本文视角看，更重要的是，德里一些老居民如今成为独立民族国家的自由公民后，几乎立刻提出以起义社会记忆为基础的诉求。 印度独立数月后，德里若干村庄向政府请愿，要求撤销他们在起义期间遭受的惩罚。这些诉求不仅出现在地方会议中，也进入印度制宪会议（Deputy Commissioner 1948）。本文第一部分已经说明，英国通过没收土地的政策，有意改变德里地区的乡村景观与社会地理（见上文第 42 页）。一些当年失去土地的家族后代如今要求归还土地。提出这类要求的村庄包括 Chowkri Mubarakbad、Wazirpur、Khampur 和 Chandrawal（Deputy Commissioner 1948）。他们所要求改变的，明确就是 1857 年后的物质秩序——德里的起义者曾因反抗英国而受到土地惩罚。Wazirpur 国大党委员会总书记致德里首席专员的一封信，清楚表达了这种联系。信中要求印度政府归还那些…… “……英国政府在 Jang-i-Azadi（独立战争），也就是 1857 年期间从我们手中夺走的土地，应尽快由国家政府归还给我们。先生，这里还应指出，如今我们的祖国（印度）已经获得自由，我们在英国统治时期蒙受的损失，以及仅仅因为参加了最终导致 1857 年革命的自由斗争而被剥夺的许多东西，都应该

得到补偿。”（Deputy Commissioner 1948） 英国人作为 1857 年的胜利者没收了这些土地，而如今这些家族要求印度政府通过归还祖产来记住他们的牺牲。最终，由于这些土地在法律上已归其他所有者占有，并没有发生实际移交。但这仍提醒我们：战争熔炉中形成的景观可以同时凝聚多种视角。对英国人而言属于胜利地点的空间，被长期居住在那里的人记忆为自身殖民处境的物质标志；独立一旦实现，他们便立刻试图改变这种状况。1857 年被重新划分的乡村地景最终没有改变，但其他纪念景观却并非如此。英国墓地就是一个例子，它们曾多次遭到破坏。Nicholson／Kashmiri Gate Cemetery 即属此类。1947 年骚乱期间，驻扎在附近的难民显然严重破坏了墓园和其中的墓葬（High Commissioner 1963）。随后，德里首席专员出资进行了大规模修复。几年后的 1956 年 3 月，附近 Qudsia Gardens 一名卖牛奶者 Bhooran／Bhawaran Singh 又故意破坏墓园，损毁、打碎并掀翻近 200 座墓。就在当月，他因“侵入墓地，并意图通过打碎墓碑伤害基督教社群感情”被判九个多月苦役（Staff Reporter 1956）。尽管发生这些事件，Nicholson Cemetery 总体上仍能辨认出 19 世纪的基本形态。

English original

This cannot be said for many other sites. For instance, the Rajpura Military Cemetery, where Henry Barnard and many other soldiers were buried, no longer exists. This originally stood in the pre-1857 British cantonments, which, from 1933 onwards, came to house the campus of Delhi University. The cemetery continued to exist until about 1980, when, according to residents of that area, it began to witness a massive, irregular influx. This soon took a residential form and is now known as the Christian Colony. There is still a cemetery adjacent to the colony, but the graves there are all of post-1970 vintage. There is no trace at all of the nineteenth-century 'Gora Kabristan' (burial ground of the white man), since all its old graves have all been built over. The only material indicator of the original cemetery remains a memorial stone, set in its old gateway, inscribed with the following message: 'Within this cemetery are interred the remains of most of the British officers and men who lost their lives during the Siege of Delhi in 1857.' If the Rajpura Military Cemetery has been destroyed by an illegal influx of local people, other sites, especially individual graves which are no longer traceable on the ground, have possibly disappeared as a consequence of a deliberate policy of the United Kingdom Government, arrived at in the aftermath of 1947. In an announcement to both Houses of Parliament on 15 March 1949, the British government clearly stated that a full-scale maintenance of all the cemeteries in India and Pakistan would be a formidable and impossible commitment for them (Bullock 1951). Apparently, 45,000 pounds used to spent annually on the maintenance of cemeteries through the Indian Ecclesiastical Est lishment. The Establishment was replaced by the British Monuments and Graves Sect of the British High Commissioner's Office and it became evident that substantial re tions in cemetery expenditure would have to be made. Importantly, as the parliamen announcement stated, while London would try to maintain several of them especially more important of the historical cemeteries, through a limited financial commitme 'where they could not be maintained ... they should revert to nature in a dignified a decent manner' (Bullock 1951). So, it is likely that fiscal logic was the primary cause the 'abandonment' of several 'minor' British graves and monuments in Delhi. Along with this, the difficulties involved in preserving such monuments in the changed political circumstances must also have been a factor and, at least in one case, resulte the deliberate destruction of an important memorial monument. Although the memo is not in Delhi, a summary of this event is worth citing since it reveals the larger po considerations that form the backdrop to post-independence British alterations of t landscape of the revolt. The monument in question is the Memorial Well at Kanpur north India. Like many of the Delhi 'mutiny' monuments, this commemorated a loca 1857 event, which involved the throwing into the well of bodies of Europeans apparen murdered on the instructions of the rebel leader, Nana Sahib. A memorial had been erected by the imperial government in 1863 consisting of a marble angel on the well head, while the well, set in the centre of a garden, came to be surrounded by an elaborate gothic stone arch. An inscription set out the details of this event and there were various tombs of those killed in the 'mutiny' as well. Before 1947, although Indians were admitted to the gardens on payment of an entrance fee, admittance to the well itself and to the tombs was restricted to 'Europeans'. However, on the day India became independent (15 August 1947), a large mob invaded this complex, blackened the face of the angel, broke its hands, and desecrated some of the graves.

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许多其他地点就没有这样幸运。例如安葬 Henry Barnard 和许多士兵的 Rajpura 军事公墓如今已经消失。它原位于 1857 年前的英国兵营区；自 1933 年起，这片地区成为德里大学校园。墓园一直存在到约 1980 年，据当地居民回忆，从那时起，大量未经规划的人口开始涌入，并迅速形成居住区，如今被称为 Christian Colony。社区旁仍有一座墓地，但现存墓葬全部是 1970 年代以后的。19 世纪的“Gora Kabristan”（白人墓地）已完全无迹可寻，因为旧

墓全部被建筑覆盖。原墓园唯一的物质标志，是旧入口处的一块纪念石，上面写着：“此墓园内安葬着 1857 年德里围城期间失去生命的大多数英国军官和士兵。”如果说 Rajpura 军事公墓因当地人口非法涌入而遭毁坏，那么另一些地点——尤其是今天在地面上已无法寻找的单独墓葬——可能是在 1947 年以后英国政府有意采取的一项政策下消失的。1949 年 3 月 15 日，英国政府向议会两院宣布，全面维护印度和巴基斯坦所有英国墓园，将是一项巨大且无法承担的承诺（Bullock 1951）。据称此前印度教会机构每年要花 4.5 万英镑维护墓园；后来该机构由英国高级专员署的 British Monuments and Graves Section 取代，很快就显现出必须大幅削减墓园支出。重要的是，议会声明表示，伦敦虽然会用有限资金尽量维护其中一些、特别是更重要的历史墓园，但“凡无法维护者……应以庄严而体面的方式回归自然”（Bullock 1951）。因此，财政逻辑很可能是德里一些“次要”英国墓葬和纪念物被“放弃”的主要原因。此外，在新的政治环境中保存这些纪念物本身也很困难；至少有一例因此导致一座重要纪念碑被主动拆除。虽然该纪念物不在德里，但值得概述，因为它揭示了独立后英国改变起义景观背后的更广泛政治考量。这就是北印度坎普尔的纪念井（Memorial Well）。和德里许多“兵变”纪念物一样，它纪念 1857 年当地的一起事件：据称，欧洲人的尸体在起义领袖 Nana Sahib 命令下被投入井中。帝国政府于 1863 年设立纪念设施，在井口安放大理石天使，并在花园中心的井周围建起精美的哥特式石拱。铭文详细叙述事件，附近还有多座“兵变”死者墓葬。1947 年前，印度人虽然付门票可以进入花园，但只有“欧洲人”能够进入井及墓葬所在的核心区域。然而印度独立当天（1947 年 8 月 15 日），大批人群闯入这一建筑群，把天使面部涂黑、打断双手，并亵渎了一些墓葬。

English original

Although the United Provinces Government immediately apologized for the desecration and carried out repairs, the future of Kanpur's Memorial Well became the subject of anxious and urgent consideration for the United Kingdom High Commission. After a great deal of discussion with the local Christian organizations of that area, the High Commission decided that the angel, along with the screen and the tombstones, would be moved to the churchyard of All Souls Memorial Church in Kanpur. But, in order to ensure that the old site of the memorial was not desecrated again, it was decided that the entire area would be levelled so as to leave no trace of its former significance. As Brigadier Bullock who was in charge of the British Monuments and Graves Section of the High Commission put it, the 'losing of the identity' of the actual site was to be done so thoroughly that no future visitor would be able to say where the well was. Bullock also wanted steps to be taken to ensure that, after this was done, the actual site of the Well was never built over since 'it is hallowed ground to all British and indeed Christian people, and even the slightest possibility of a secular building - not to say a Hindu temple or a Mosque - being erected over it is abhorrent' (Bullock 1948). So, the changes that have taken place in India's 'mutiny' landscape after 1947 seem to be the result of various factors, ranging from local acts of vandalism to British policy decisions. Alterations have also resulted because of the curious manner in which the Indian government has chosen to memorialize the revolt. In Delhi, this has been done by appropriating British memorials, through the setting up of inscribed stones at some of them. The purpose of these inscriptions is to counter the narratives of the original epitaphs. Take the case of the Mutiny Memorial on the northern Ridge. Twenty-five years after India became independent, on 15 August 1972, this was 'converted' into a memorial, as the inscription at the entrance of the monument informs us, 'for those martyrs who rose and fought against the British during 1857 AD'. The conversion is confined to two inscriptions, one of which is mentioned above while the other inscription (Plate 7) points out that 'The enemy of the inscriptions on this monument were those who rose against colonial rule'. To any visitor, these messages appear to be incongruous, minimalist gestures, aimed only at challenging the British perspective. There is no separate memorial to honour the rebels, no mention at all of those who lost their lives fighting the British, nor any attempt to highlight how the revolt tied up with the history of the Delhi region. There must be many reasons why this massive rebellion has remained forgotten in archaeological terms, ranging from the changed social composition of Delhi to the absence of a sense of history among the ruling class that inhabits India's political capital. But perhaps the most important reason has been the manner in which the national has subsumed the local here, tellingly summed up by Gupta: 'Partly because Delhi has the misfortune to be the national capital, the national is crushing the city; Tilak Nagars and Nehru Roads proliferate, and hardly anyone knows of the poetry of Mir and Zauq, the humour of Ghalib, the quality of life that Chandni Chowk once symbolized' (1981: ix). That the rich history of Delhi's revolt has been rendered invisible through the process of 'nationalizing' it becomes evident from a site of commemoration that has recently been established - the museum of India's Freedom Struggle. Inaugurated in September 1995, the Swatantrata Sangram Sangrahalaya, as it called, is dedicated to 'the

memory of the heroic men and women, peasants and workers, students and professionals who Plate 7 Plaque installed in 1972 by the Indian government on the Mutiny Memorial. Photograph: author. participated in the attainment of Swaraj (self-rule)' (Rao 1995). The museum is situated in the Red Fort, a fitting locale since this is where the 1857 revolt broke out in Delhi and, significantly enough, it has devoted one section to the revolt, presenting it as the first war of Indian Independence. Because the focus is 'national' rather than 'local', the details of the happenings in Delhi are interwoven with those of Awadh, Calcutta, Jhansi and Bihar. But, state remembrance, as the museum display reveals, remains confined to the leaders of the revolt in Delhi, personages like Bahadur Shah II and Bakht Khan, his military commander. The social memory of the others who lost their lives in the city is not accorded a place in this gallery - Sayyad Mohammad Ahir, the calligraphist, Bahadur Singh, a resident of Gurgaon, Ganga Prasad Kayastha, who lived in Chandni Chowk, Azimullah Khan, another Delhi resident and editor of Paigham-e-Azad ('Message of Freedom') are just a handful, from a list which includes thousands of names, of those who were hanged by the British on charges of treason and sedition (Chopra 1974). Their role has not been thought to be worthy of remembrance. In conclusion, then, the form in which the commemoration of 1857 has come to be materially constituted has much to do with the selection and construction of a particular kind of past. In Delhi's 'national' culture, very little place has been created for a historic moment in its 'local' history. At the same time, with shifts in the social basis of political power, remembrance can assume new material forms. In another theatre of the 1857 revolt, the city of Meerut where the sepoy mutiny first broke out, the 'local' has now made its presence felt. Recently, the names of eighty-five sepoys who spearheaded the army rebellion there have been put up in the Shahid (Martyrs') park, while a statue of an 1857 rebel called Dhani Singh Kotwal waits to be installed. The manner in which the changed political sociology of the region has contributed to the creation of such memorials is worth exploring but is beyond the ambit of this article. What it does force us to recognize, though, is that the social commemoration of 1857 continues to be inscribed in new ways. In the future, it is entirely possible that the rebels of Delhi - their voices and acts - will be remembered in a material form which will raise them above their present marginalized and faceless status.

中文译文

联合省政府立即为破坏事件道歉并进行修复，但坎普尔纪念井的未来很快成为英国高级专员署焦急而紧迫讨论的问题。与当地基督教组织多次磋商后，高级专员署决定把天使雕像、围屏和墓碑全部移到坎普尔诸灵纪念教堂（All Souls Memorial Church）的墓园。不过，为了确保纪念物原址不再遭到亵渎，又决定把整个区域彻底推平，使其过去的重要意义不留下任何痕迹。高级专员署英国纪念物与墓葬部门负责人 Bullock 准将说，要如此彻底地“消除实际地点的身份”，以至于未来任何访客都无法指出那口井究竟在什么位置。他还希望确保此后井的具体位置永远不得建房，因为“对所有英国人乃至所有基督徒而言，这都是圣地；哪怕只存在在上面建造世俗建筑的极小可能——更不用说印度教寺庙或清真寺——都令人厌恶”（Bullock 1948）。因此，1947 年以后印度“兵变”景观的变化，似乎源于多种因素，从地方性的破坏行动到英国政策决定都有。印度政府以一种颇为特殊的方式纪念起义，也造成了景观改变。在德里，它通过“占用”英国纪念物来完成这一过程，即在其中一些纪念物旁另设铭石，用新的文字反驳原有墓志和纪念叙事。北部山脊上的“兵变纪念碑”就是典型。印度独立二十五年后的 1972 年 8 月 15 日，这座建筑被“转化”为另一种纪念碑；入口铭文称，它现在纪念“公元 1857 年奋起反抗英国并与之战斗的烈士”。所谓“转化”实际上只体现在两块铭文上：一块就是上述文字，另一块（图版 7）指出：“本纪念碑铭文所谓的敌人，是那些反抗殖民统治的人。”对游客而言，这些信息显得彼此不协调，而且只是极其简约地挑战英国视角。这里并没有单独纪念起义者的纪念碑，没有写出任何与英国作战而死者的姓名，也没有试图突出这场起义与德里地区历史之间的关系。如此大规模的起义在考古层面仍被遗忘，原因可能很多，包括德里社会构成的改变，也包括居住在印度政治首都的统治阶层缺少历史意识。不过，也许最重要的原因，是“国家”叙事在这里吞没了“地方”叙事。Gupta 对此有一句很有代表性的概括：“部分由于德里不幸成为国家首都，国家性的东西正在压垮这座城市；Tilak Nagar 和 Nehru Road 不断增加，却几乎无人知道 Mir 与 Zauq 的诗歌、Ghalib 的幽默，以及 Chandni Chowk 曾经象征的生活品质”（1981: ix）。德里起义丰富的地方历史正是在这种“国家化”过程中变得不可见。最近建立的一个纪念场所——印度自由斗争博物馆——尤其说明这一点。1995 年 9 月开放的 Swatantrata Sangram Sangrahalaya，献给“那些为获得 Swaraj（自治）而奋斗的英勇男女、农民与工人、学生与专业人士”的记忆（Rao 1995）。 图版 7：印度政府 1972 年在“兵变纪念碑”上安装的牌匾。照片：

作者。 博物馆设在红堡，地点非常合适，因为 1857 年德里起义正是在这里爆发。值得注意的是，博物馆专门设置一部分介绍起义，并把它呈现为印度第一次独立战争。由于展示重点是“国家”而不是“地方”，德里的具体事件与奥德、加尔各答、占西和比哈尔的事件交织在一起。然而，正如展陈所显示的，国家记忆在德里仍主要集中于起义领袖，例如巴哈杜尔·沙二世以及其军事指挥官 Bakht Khan。其他在城中失去生命者的社会记忆，在这个展厅里没有位置。Sayyad Mohammad Ahir 这位书法家、Gurgaon 居民 Bahadur Singh、住在 Chandni Chowk 的 Ganga Prasad Kayastha、另一名德里居民兼《Paigham-e-Azad》（《自由的讯息》）编辑 Azimullah Khan，只是数千名因叛国和煽动罪被英国人绞死者名单中的少数几人（Chopra 1974）；他们的作用并未被认为值得纪念。由此可以得出结论：1857 年纪念在物质上最终呈现为何种形式，与对某一种过去的选择和建构密切相关。在德里的“国家”文化中，这座城市自身“地方”历史上的重大时刻几乎没有获得空间。与此同时，随着政治权力社会基础的变化，记忆也可能获得新的物质形式。在 1857 年起义的另一个舞台——士兵兵变首先爆发的密拉特——“地方”如今已经开始发声。最近，最先发动军队起义的 85 名士兵姓名被刻在 Shahid（烈士）公园中；另一名 1857 年起义者 Dhani Singh Kotwal 的雕像也等待安装。 这一地区政治社会学的变化究竟如何促成这些纪念物的产生，是值得进一步研究的问题，但超出了本文范围。它至少迫使我们认识到：1857 年的社会纪念仍在不断以新的方式被铭写。未来完全有可能出现这样的情况——德里的起义者、他们的声音与行动，将以物质形式得到纪念，从而摆脱今天被边缘化、没有面孔的状态。

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English original

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中文译文

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